SMALL STATE INFLUENCE AT THE IMF EXECUTIVE BOARD*

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Abstract

What do small states want when they borrow from international organizations? I argue that institutional representation bestows small states with more influence over the terms of their loans. Leveraging exogenous variation in representation at the IMF Executive Board, I first document a counterintuitive pattern: institutional representation *increases* conditionality, whereas past literature assumes that increased conditionality is bad for borrowers. To explain this pattern, I argue that borrowers can leverage certain types of loan conditions to i) increase public support for IMF programs and the regime in general and ii) reduce the ability of organized opposition to capitalize on mass grievances. My results demonstrate that the increase in total conditions is driven by conditions that plausibly further those goals and not conditions most favored by great powers.

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For small states facing balance of payments crises, loans from international organizations (IOs) are a vital lifeline.[1] Loans provide the necessary liquidity to pay creditors or replenish foreign exchange reserves. But these funds are not a free lunch. IO loans – including those from the world's premier lender of last resort, the International Monetary Fund (IMF) – come with strings attached in the form of policy conditions. Conditions may require borrowers to slash government spending, lower barriers to trade, or devalue their currency, among other things. Proponents of the IMF – who embrace what might be termed a liberal institutionalist view – argue that these conditions help borrowers credibly commit to implementing economic policies that will mobilize other sources of financing to end the crisis and steer them away from future crises. The global incidence of these conditions is displayed in Figure 1.

Distinct economic contexts necessitate distinct policy prescriptions, and, in principle, IMF conditions can be tailored to the particular needs and preferences of small state borrowers. However, conditions are the outcome of a bargaining process between the borrower, the IMF's bureaucracy, and great powers with significant formal and informal power at the Fund. The relative power of bureaucrats and great powers often pulls IMF programs away from the small state's ideal set of conditions. Extant literature shows that the IMF's staff largely subscribes to neoliberal orthodoxy, and imposes the strictest conditions on borrowers who do not share those beliefs (Chwieroth, 2013; Chwieroth, 2015; Kaya and Reay, 2019; Nelson, 2014). Great powers (especially the US) shape IMF conditionality in line with their foreign policy goals (Dreher, Lang, Rosendorff, and Vreeland, 2022). In particular, they lobby for tough conditions on borrowers who don't support their political objectives, while granting reprieves to their friends (Dreher, Sturm, and Vreeland, 2009; Stone, 2011). In addition, great powers seek conditions that benefit their home firms (Dang and Stone, 2021). Both sets of actors tend to favor conditions that require austerity, privatization

[1] In this paper, I use small state to indicate non-great powers, as in Arias (Forthcoming). Others refer to these as weak states (e.g., Mikulaschek, 2021).

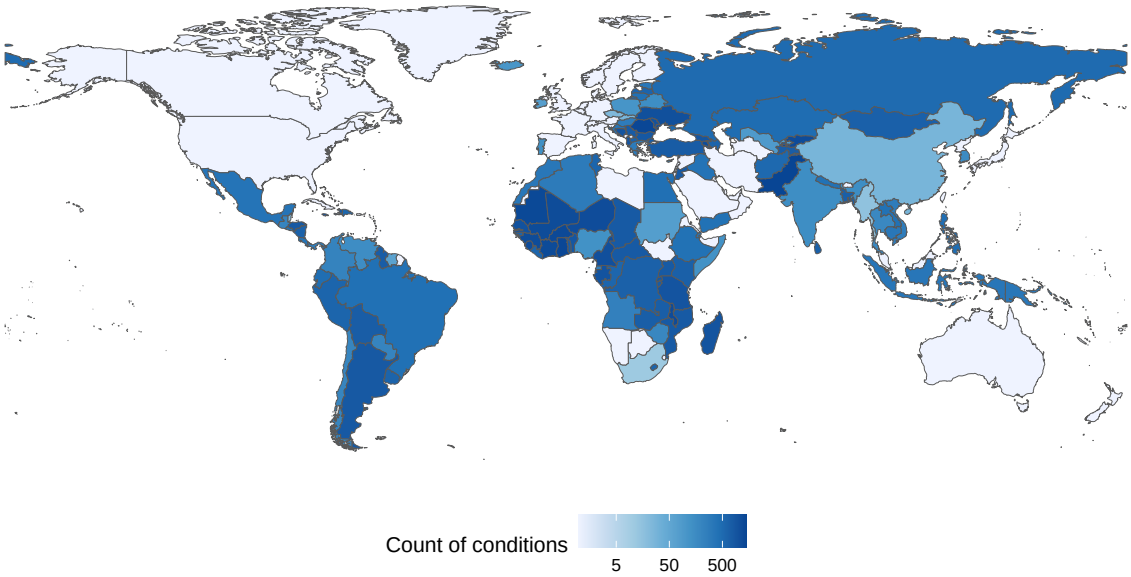


Figure 1: Geographic Distribution of IMF Conditions, 1980-2019. Conditionality data from Kentikelenis and Stubbs (2023).

and liberalization, collectively known as the Washington Consensus. These policies spark backlash in borrower countries and undermine patronage networks, making it more difficult for small state leaders to retain power.

Scholarly attention has focused on bureaucrats and great powers at the expense of small states, who must ultimately implement the conditions. While these actors are undoubtedly important, assessing relative influence requires knowing what small states likely pursued at the bargaining table. Existing literature makes the intuitively plausible assumption that small states uniformly prefer fewer conditions on their loans. Loans with few conditions have lower costs of compliance and are less likely to cause backlash. This assumption is substantiated indirectly by empirical literature that shows that conditionality is negatively correlated with variables like US alignment (Stone, 2011), shared normative orientations with IMF staff (Chwieroth, 2015), and increased outside options (Clark, 2022), which indicate increased bargaining leverage relative to the IMF.

I take a more direct approach to the question of small state preferences. Specifically, I explore the effects of representation on the IMF Executive Board – which manages the Fund on a day-to-day basis and votes on proposed programs – on loan conditions. Significant literature across a variety of IOs points to institutional representation as a way for states to get what they want. States represented on the UN Security Council, for instance, secure more UN peacekeepers for their region (Mikulaschek, 2021), more and higher quality foreign aid (Berlin et al., 2022; Kuziemko and Werker, 2006), and more resources from other IOs (Jud, 2024; Mikulaschek, 2018). At the World Bank, firms from represented states receive more contracts (Dreher, Lang, and Richert, 2019). This is particularly true at bodies like the Executive Board that operate on the basis of consensus norms (Vreeland, 2007), as great powers seek to legitimize their preferred policies by bringing politically distant partners on board (Chapman, 2009).

Both descriptive and causal analyses of the relationship between Executive Board membership

and conditionality reveal a surprising pattern: Executive Board membership *increases* the number of conditions that states agree to. This effect is statistically significant and substantively meaningful: the causally identified estimate is that Executive Board membership increases a borrower's count of conditions by eight, more than half of the control group mean. This result is directly contrary to existing literature, which would predict that institutional representation reduces the count of conditions. More fundamentally, it suggests that our assumptions about the terms small states prefer to borrow on may be incomplete.

I propose a novel theory to explain this result. Specifically, I argue that small states can benefit from conditions that 1) bolster public support due to popular redistributive consequences and/or 2) weaken the ability of organized opposition to capitalize on mass grievances. I focus on two types of conditions: green, resilient, and inclusive development (GRID) and labor conditions. GRID conditions mandate policies that have popular redistributive consequences and have been shown to increase support for IMF programs (Heinzel, Kern, et al., 2025); labor conditions can reduce the capabilities of organized opposition to mobilize against the regime by undermining organized labor. I expect increases in conditionality to be largest among these types of plausibly pro-borrower conditions. To test the alternative explanation that great powers coerce Executive Board members with harsher conditions, I also examine effects among Washington Consensus conditions, which the US favors but borrowers find politically onerous.[2]

I test this argument using a novel identification strategy. Many existing studies of small state representation in IOs suffer from issues of endogeneity, as access to Executive Board membership may be correlated with a number of variables – such as need for IO resources, geopolitical alignments, or political power – that also affect how the IO treats the state. To overcome these confounders, I focus on two groups ("constituencies" in IMF parlance) of African states that rotate control of

[2]Washington Consensus conditions involve the liberalization of trade and investment, reduction of debt, and privatization of state-owned enterprises (Heinzel, Kern, et al., 2025).

Executive Board seats around all members of the constituency in a predetermined order.[3] This rotation creates plausibly exogenous variation in Executive Board membership, allowing for causal identification of its effects.

Analysis using this method yields evidence consistent with my argument. Specifically, my results show statistically significant increases in labor and GRID conditions. In my preferred specification, Executive Board membership increases the count of GRID conditions by 0.67 (on top of a control mean of 0.38) and labor conditions by 0.40 (on top of a control mean of 0.58). Both results are significant and robust to the inclusion of additional covariates. I complement these results with exploratory analyses of heterogeneous treatment effects. Consistent with the theory, treated democratic states who are accountable to public opinion receive more GRID conditions than treated autocracies. By contrast, treated autocracies (who are accountable primarily to other elites) receive more labor conditions than treated democracies. The effect of Executive Board membership is largest in states with high current union engagement, and Executive Board membership reduces future union engagement in autocracies. Together, these analyses suggest that states' Executive Board strategies are tied to their particular political needs and effective in addressing those needs. I then directly test the coercion hypothesis, finding no significant increase in Washington Consensus conditions, although the point estimate is positive. This result demonstrates that the coercion theory does not explain the positive relationship between Executive Board membership and conditionality.

This paper contributes to our understanding of small state agency in international organizations. Historically, IR theorists have treated small states as price takers in international politics (e.g., Mearsheimer, 2001). Indeed, it is certainly true that small states face more constraints than great powers due to their lack of power. However, a growing literature shows that these states can be influential in a number of ways. Small states have been particularly effective in setting the agenda

[3]This differs from other constituencies, where the seat may be held permanently by one state or rotated among a small group of states.

in IOs, forcing their priority issues into discussions that great powers may prefer to avoid (Arias, Forthcoming; Arias et al., 2025). Other work shows that small states make material gains at IOs – additional UN peacekeepers (Mikulaschek, 2021), more and better foreign assistance (Berlin et al., 2022; Dreher, Sturm, and Vreeland, 2009), or benefits for their domestic firms (Dreher, Lang, and Richert, 2019) – regardless of great power alliances or shared worldviews. I present novel evidence about the kinds of benefits states might pursue within international financial institutions, moving beyond expectations of more assistance and untested assumptions about what small states want from loans.

Second, I build on the literature on IMF conditionality, perhaps the most controversial part of the Fund's activities. Significant literature assumes that borrowers seek to reduce the number of conditions on their loans in order to lower the costs of complying with those conditions (e.g., Caraway et al., 2012; Clark, 2022; Dreher, Sturm, and Vreeland, 2009; Stone, 2008). Other scholars have argued that political leaders blame the IMF (scapegoat) for economic pain inflicted by IMF programs in the hopes of avoiding political consequences; sometimes, leaders use this strategy despite actually wanting to implement the policies required by the IMF (Przeworski and Vreeland, 2000; Rickard and Caraway, 2019; Vreeland, 2007). In other words, the scapegoating literature argues that the IMF provides political cover for incumbents to implement conservative or otherwise unpopular policies that they do genuinely wish to implement, while redirecting public anger towards the IMF.[4] Conditionality may also send a positive signal of reform commitment to markets and other sources of finance, bolstering the so-called catalytic effect of IMF loans (Woo, 2013). Similarly, my results suggest that states may use conditions to shield themselves from IMF backlash by implementing policies that 1) reduce public opposition to economic reforms and/or 2) weaken the collective action capacity of actors like labor unions. Conditions enable borrowers to insulate

[4]Notably, recent experimental literature has challenged this view, finding limited effects of scapegoating on public opinion (Abouharb et al., 2024).

themselves while retaining the IMF's endorsement and thus the desired catalytic effect.

Third, I contribute to a small but growing literature on the IMF's Executive Board. The Executive Board is conceptualized as a political counterweight to the technocratic staff (Martinez-Diaz, 2008), but some have doubted its efficacy on institutional design grounds. Executive Directors cannot be fired by their home government(s) and often represent multiple governments at once, creating a weak principal-agent relationship and informational asymmetries with the IMF's staff (Stone, 2011; Woods, 2007). Nonetheless, there is evidence that countries – including small states – desire representation on the IMF Board (Momani, 2010; Vreeland, 2011; Woods and Lombardi, 2006); indeed, a recent reform aimed at making the Fund more representative and equitable granted a third seat to the African continent (IMF, 2024b). This pursuit of representation is puzzling if there are no benefits to membership. Extant work finds evidence that geopolitically weak states use Executive Board membership to pursue their interests (Arias et al., 2025; Carnegie et al., 2024; Forster, 2024; Malan, 2018); Dreher, Lang, and Richert (2019) find benefits from membership on the World Bank's International Finance Corporation Board of Directors. I build on this work in two ways. First, I leverage plausibly exogenous variation in national representation caused by rotational arrangements in two constituencies; simply relying on Board membership without this rotational arrangement may cause estimates to be inflated by selection bias, as more politically savvy or needy governments exert more effort to secure representation. Second, I focus on the implications of Executive Board membership for loan conditionality, a major and controversial component that is typically seen as directly contrary to the interests of small states (Clark, 2022; Dang and Stone, 2021; Stone, 2011). While existing literature generally assumes that borrowers uniformly prefer fewer conditions, my theory and results demonstrate substantial heterogeneity by policy area. If some types of conditions have desirable domestic impacts, borrowers may actually prefer more of them.

Institutional Context

The International Monetary Fund serves as a key lender of last resort. The Board of Governors sits atop the IMF hierarchy and retains exclusive power to approve quota increases, amend IMF By-Laws and Articles of Agreement, admit new members and force members to withdraw, and allocate IMF Special Drawing Rights (SDRs) (IMF, 2024a). All member-states of the IMF have one representative on the Board of Governors – typically their finance minister or equivalent cabinet member – who controls that country's votes. However, the Board of Governors generally only meets once a year; instead, member countries have delegated management of the Fund's day-to-day affairs to the much smaller Executive Board (EB). The EB meets several times a week and is empowered to approve financing to member countries in crisis, oversee Fund capacity development initiatives, and discuss and advise member states on the implications of their economic policies (IMF, 2023a).

The EB is composed of 24 Executive Directors, most of whom have at least one Alternate Executive Director who may vote in place of the Director as needed.[5,6] The Directors serve two-year terms, represent varying numbers of countries, and vote with the sum of the votes controlled by the country(ies) that appointed them.[7] As of 2025, seven countries – China, France, Germany, Japan, Saudi Arabia, the UK, and the US – appoint their own Directors. The remaining 17 Directors are appointed by groups of countries (called constituencies) ranging in size from two to 23 members (IMF, 2023a). These constituencies are, in general, vaguely geographic and linguistic, but membership is not determined by rule and thus states may change constituencies and groupings may appear odd (Vreeland, 2007). Figure A1 displays these groupings along with a name that

[5]I will use Directors to refer to both Executive Directors and Alternate Executive Directors.

[6]The Fund expanded the EB to 25 members in 2024, adding a third seat for African states. Note that the EB had 24 members for the period of time contained in this analysis. As such, I will refer to the Board as a 24-person body with two seats for African states (IMF, 2023b).

[7]The number of votes held by a country is determined by that country's quota, which is highly correlated with the size of the country's economy.

loosely describes the common characteristics of the constituency.[8] These constituencies decide for themselves how they will appoint Directors to the Board; I discuss this further when I present my empirical strategy.

Motivating Pattern: Increased Conditionality for IMF Executive Board Members

Two lines of existing scholarship indicate that institutional representation should lead to reduced conditionality at the IMF. First, scholars find that institutional representation at IOs leads to more favorable bargaining outcomes in interactions with the IO (Dreher, Lang, and Richert, 2019; Heinzel, Reinsberg, and Zaccaria, 2024; Kaja and Werker, 2010; Mikulaschek, 2018) as well as powerful states (Berlin et al., 2022; Dreher, Sturm, and Vreeland, 2015; Kuziemko and Werker, 2006). Organizations and states make concessions in order to build consensus on their policy initiatives and bolster institutional legitimacy (Dreher, Sturm, and Vreeland, 2009; Mikulaschek, 2021). The second strand of literature finds that increased bargaining leverage at the IMF is associated with reduced conditionality (Chwieroth, 2015; Clark, 2022; Ferry and Zeitz, 2024; Stone, 2011). Conditions are the rules and regulations that IMF borrowers are obligated to abide by in exchange for loans; loan agreements with their conditions are approved by the Executive Board. Intuitively, states seek to remove constraints on their behavior.

The expectation that Executive Board membership reduces IMF conditionality is not borne out by the data. Examining members of the IMF's African constituencies (the constituencies for which non-EB members are most comparable to EB members), the top panel of Figure 2 shows that the mean number of conditions is actually slightly higher for EB members (33.8) than for non-EB members (32.7).[9]

[8]Note, however, that these tags do not necessarily apply to all members; Ghana, for example, is in a constituency with Islamic countries despite intuitively having more in common with the primarily Anglophone African constituency.

[9]This comparison is of treated versus untreated units that have agreed to IMF loans. If we include non-loan years, treated units have about 1.33 fewer conditions (mean of 11.73 versus control mean of 13.06). The difference is not

This counterintuitive pattern is not the result of selection or confounding. A causally identified analysis of the effect shows the same pattern more starkly.[10] Within the African constituencies, Executive Board members agree to about 8 more conditions per year than non-Executive Board members. To my knowledge, I am the first to document this pattern, which runs directly contrary to the predictions of existing theory.

statistically significant in either case.

[10]Specifically, I control for country fixed effects, year fixed effects, years since treatment (and its squared term), prior Executive Board membership, and the interaction of years untreated and prior Executive Board membership (and the same for squared years untreated). Full results are in Table D7. I provide a full discussion of the empirical strategy in the sections that follow.

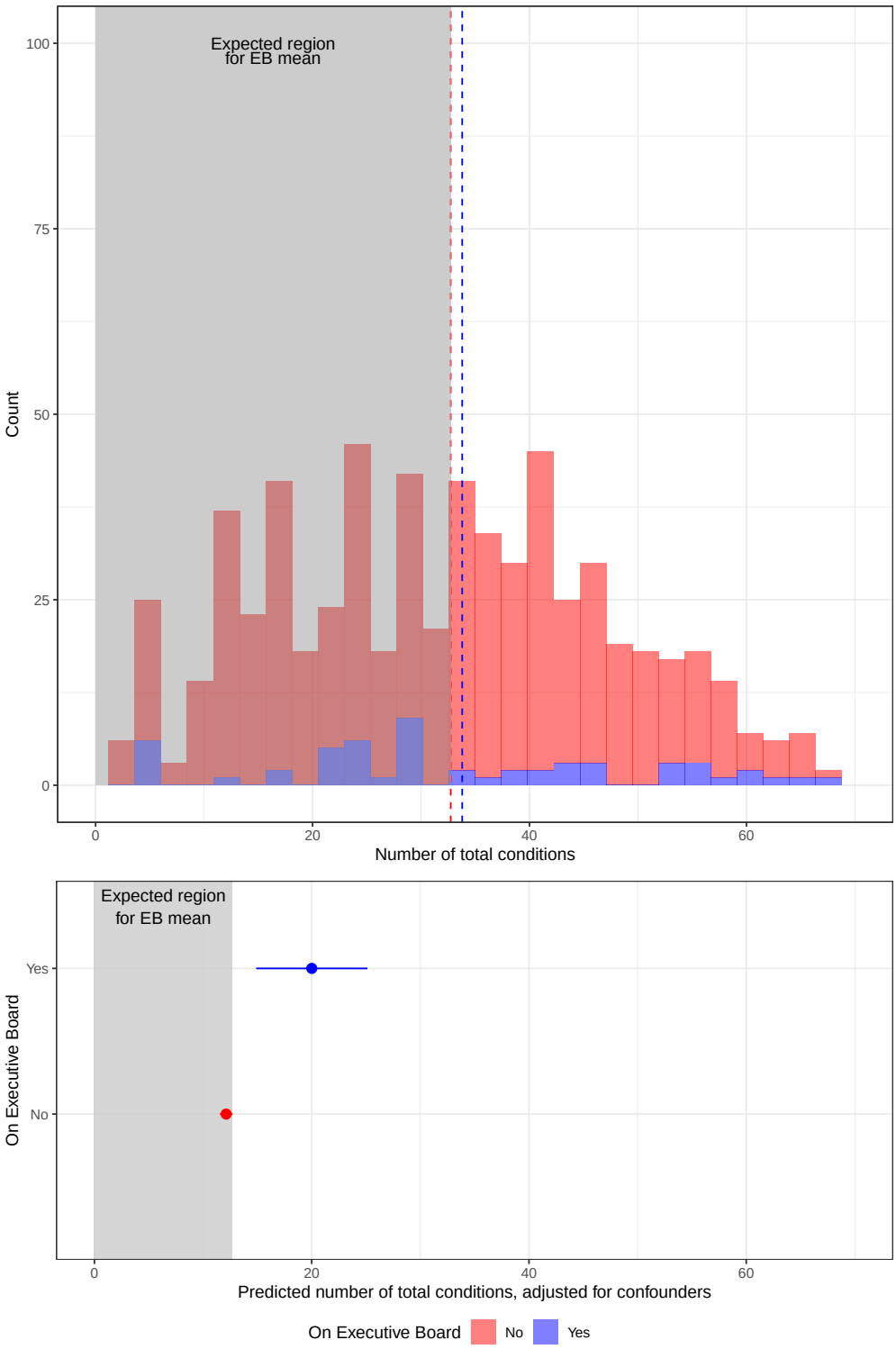


Figure 2: Conditionality Patterns by Treatment Status. Blue bars represent the distribution of conditions among EB members, while red bars represent the distribution of conditions among non-EB members. The colored dashed lines represent means among their respective groups. In the bottom panel, the error bars represent 95 percent confidence intervals for average predicted values by treatment group. Note that the error bars for the control group in the bottom panel are present but difficult to see. The shaded region in each panel represents where existing theories would predict the Executive Board member mean to fall and is less than the (upper bound of the confidence interval of the) control mean.

Executive Board Representation and Condition Types

What explains this unexpected empirical pattern? I argue that these states seek to gain the IMF's seal of approval for policies that improve their domestic political standing. Shoring up domestic support is key for borrowers who are likely in dire economic straits and faced with the prospect of implementing difficult reforms. Indeed, taking on IMF programs is correlated with higher incidence of government crises (Dreher and Gassebner, 2012). There are two ways in which IMF conditions can improve a borrower's political position: by reducing mass grievances and by undermining the capacity of organized actors to act on those mass grievances.

Implementing policies that redistribute resources to the masses reduces mass grievances and boosts public support for the government. All else equal, the masses should favor policies that distribute resources towards them. Recently, the IMF has increased its attention to what it calls "green, resilient, and inclusive development" (GRID) policies. This includes policies aimed at reducing corruption, addressing poverty, mitigating climate change, and advancing gender equality. All of these policies have positive redistributional consequences, and recent experimental work from Heinzel, Kern, et al. (2025) shows that GRID conditionality significantly increases public support for IMF loans. Increased support for IMF loans should translate into a stronger winning coalition for the incumbent leader in the borrowing country.

Borrowers are theoretically free to implement a popular policy absent IMF conditions, but I expect they prefer to do so with conditions. Borrowers may want the IMF endorsement for two reasons. First, GRID conditions ensure that reforms are copacetic with other IMF requirements. For example, one condition might require the implementation of an anti-poverty program while another requires that the deficit remains under a certain threshold. If GRID conditions are explicitly endorsed by the IMF, the deficit threshold should consider the required anti-poverty policy. Second,

the IMF endorsement for GRID conditions retains the desired catalytic effect of IMF lending on other sources of capital (Breen and Egan, 2019; Woo, 2013). Without conditions, GRID policies may appear to be a departure from the economic path preferred by the IMF and other sources of capital. Conditions reassure these other actors that such policies are consistent with IMF recommendations.

Given their legitimacy-bolstering effects, why doesn't the IMF strictly prefer to attach GRID conditions? GRID conditions can be thought of as a component of what Kaya and Reay (2019) call the Augmented Washington Consensus, where socially-oriented policies became part of the IMF's approach to lending. Both the original and augmented Washington Consensus emerged gradually in the Fund's internal discussions over my study period. One plausible reason that the IMF has not always attached GRID conditions is that there was internal disagreement about the efficacy of such conditions. If borrowers preferred this emerging alternative to the Washington Consensus, their positioning within the Executive Board may have allowed them to frontrun the adoption of the Augmented Washington Consensus.

Hypothesis 1 (H1) *Executive Board members agree to more GRID conditions than non-Executive Board members.*

Borrowers may want to weaken their organized opposition, either as a complement or a substitute to bolstering their public support when taking on an IMF loan. Weakening organized labor is one way to achieve this goal. From the leader's perspective, there are at least three benefits to weakening labor. First, both the current and future risk of an effective mass backlash decline, as long as the initial implementation of the policy succeeds. Consistent with this idea, crossnational evidence suggests that union membership is associated with increased political participation (Kerrissey and Schofer, 2018). Second, lower mass threat allows the leader to direct resources towards satisfying elite interests. Union participation is linked to labor share of income (Bengtsson, 2014) and the degree to which political representatives represent citizen interests (Flavin, 2018). Finally, reduced

mass threat is also likely to ease the ability to implement IMF-mandated reforms, some or all of which may be genuinely desirable to the leader and/or economically beneficial. Such reforms sometimes generate public backlash, which is more likely to be fatal to the regime and/or its reform efforts if it is well-organized.

Labor conditions serve as an appealing option for this goal. Labor conditions often involve actions harmful to labor, such as public sector cuts, minimum wage freezes, or pension reforms. Scholarly work has demonstrated that IMF programs, especially those with more labor conditions, exacerbate inequality (Lang, 2021; Vreeland, 2002); accordingly, labor tends to push back against IMF programs (Azedi and Schofer, 2023; Caraway et al., 2012). Such policy changes can reduce union membership and in turn their revenue from dues, with potential consequences for the ability of the masses to organize against their government. Consistent with this theoretical point, Lebas (2011) documents that, initially, some African autocrats built alliances with labor organizations to preserve their rule. Some regimes banned or intervened in unions to splinter and weaken opposition; those that didn't weaken unions saw labor structures turned into facilitators of opposition party activity. Systematic evidence links labor conditions specifically to weaker labor rights (Reinsberg et al., 2019). Finally, states can use the IMF as a scapegoat, muddying the waters of blame attribution and limiting the mobilizing effects of anti-government appeals (Alcañiz and Hellwig, 2011; Vreeland, 2007). For example, Gunaydin (2018) shows that leftist governments that rely on labor support are more likely to rely on IMF labor conditions to reform the labor market in the face of backlash.

Hypothesis 2 (H2) *Executive Board members agree to more labor conditions than non-Executive Board members.*

Empirical Approach

A reasonable first attempt at evaluating these hypotheses would be a selection on observables approach, such as that used by Malan (2018). However, this approach cannot convincingly rule out selection bias for the nonrandomly assigned treatment, for which there are multiple theoretical and often unobservable sources. First, states that are more savvy in their relationships with the IMF or other member countries may be better at securing EB seats. Switzerland, for example, used bilateral foreign aid to secure a larger vote share and continuing presence on the EB (Vreeland, 2011). Second, states that anticipate a future crisis may expend more effort in pursuit of an EB seat. Third, great powers might informally pressure constituencies to elect states that they expect to be facilitative of continued consensus at the EB. All three of these sources of bias point in the direction of incorrectly identifying a relationship between IMF EB representation and IMF support.

In order to alleviate issues of selection bias, I employ a natural experimental approach that leverages exogenous variation in control of two EB seats. Two constituencies – which I call the Anglophone African constituency and Francophone African constituency in Figure 3 – rotate control of the EB seats to all members according to a predetermined order.[11] The existence of a rotation that is set in advance and extends to all constituency members renders implausible the three sources of bias I described above. All constituents, regardless of some underlying savvy or great power support, are eligible. The order is set far in advance, meaning that policymakers could not plausibly be organizing based on some expectations of future crisis. Other work on international organizations leverages similar variation in control of UN Security Council seats to yield causally identified estimates (Berlin et al., 2022; Jud, 2024; Mikulaschek, 2018; Mikulaschek, 2021).

[11] In interviews, current and former IMF employees claimed they had no reason to believe this order was manipulated for political or other reasons, although they could not definitively rule it out.

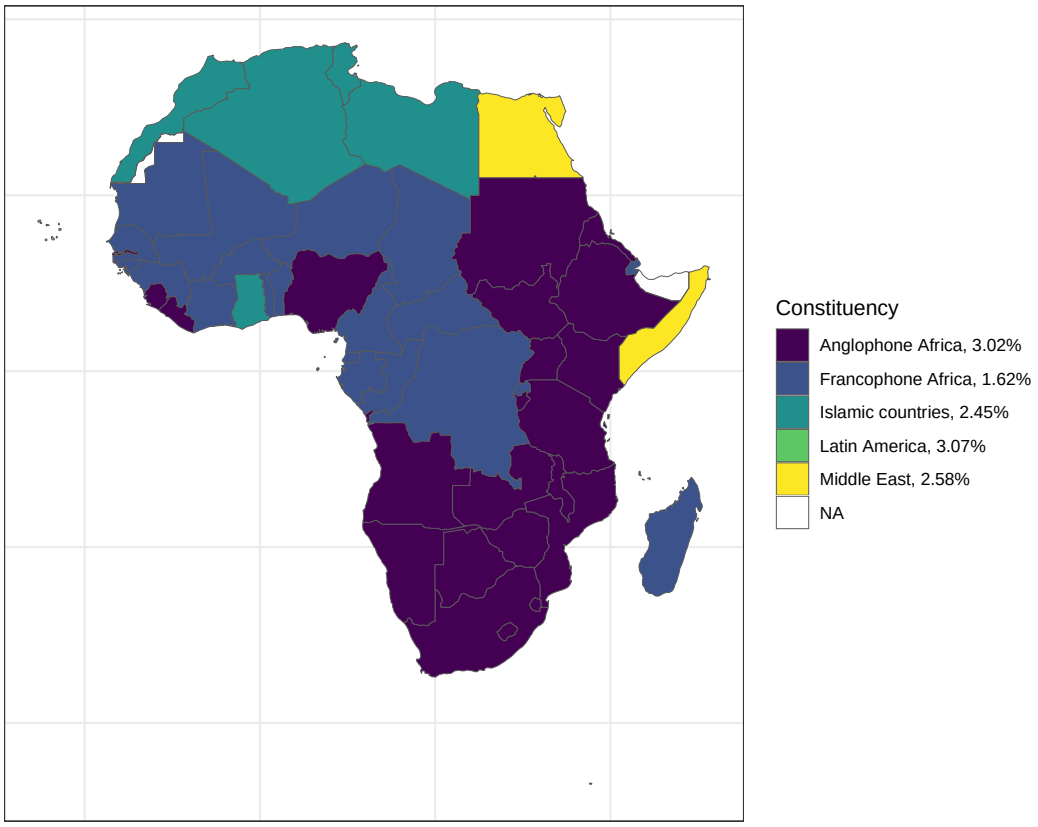


Figure 3: African States' Constituencies in 2024

Sample

The sample covers countries that are members of one of the two African constituencies from the period 1980 to 2019; prior to this period, there were not identifiable African constituencies. There are a few noteworthy features of the sample. First, countries only appear in years that they are in the constituency; that is, if a country leaves the constituency in 1985, it does not appear in the sample after 1985. Second, not all Sub-Saharan African states are in the African constituencies; presently, for example, Ghana and Somalia participate in constituencies with primarily non-African memberships. Third, membership is theoretically open to non-African states. This distinction is rare and does not appear in my sample; Trinidad and Tobago is the only case of a non-African country in these constituencies, and it left the Anglophone constituency after 1979. Figure 3 displays the constituency affiliations of African states in 2024.

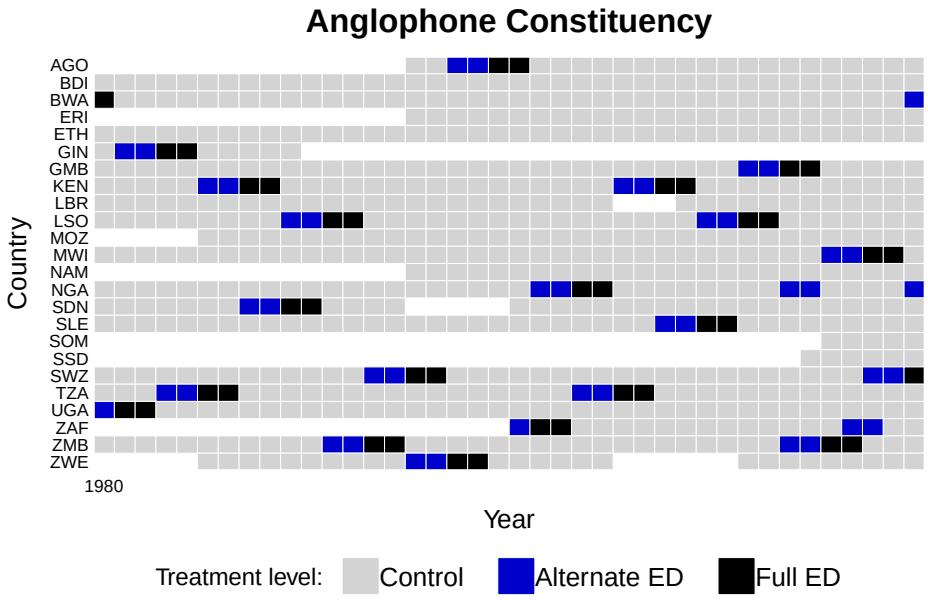
Independent Variable

The main independent variable is a dummy variable that takes the value one if the Executive Director or Alternate Executive Director for the country's constituency is from that country. This information is collected from the IMF's Annual Reports; in recent years, Director nationality has been dropped from the reports, so this information was gathered from other sources (e.g., LinkedIn accounts, media accounts, and government profiles) as necessary. As discussed above, countries with a national serving as either Executive Director or Alternate Executive Director are considered treated in the main specifications to alleviate concerns about anticipation, as well as to capture the theoretical ability of Alternates to undermine consensus norms. According to current and former IMF officials, Alternates commonly participate in meetings; one former Alternate Director said he and his lead Director from his constituency split duties based partly on interest. Given the status of Alternate Directors in the African constituency as the future lead Directors and the small number of treated units, it is preferable to include them as treated units.

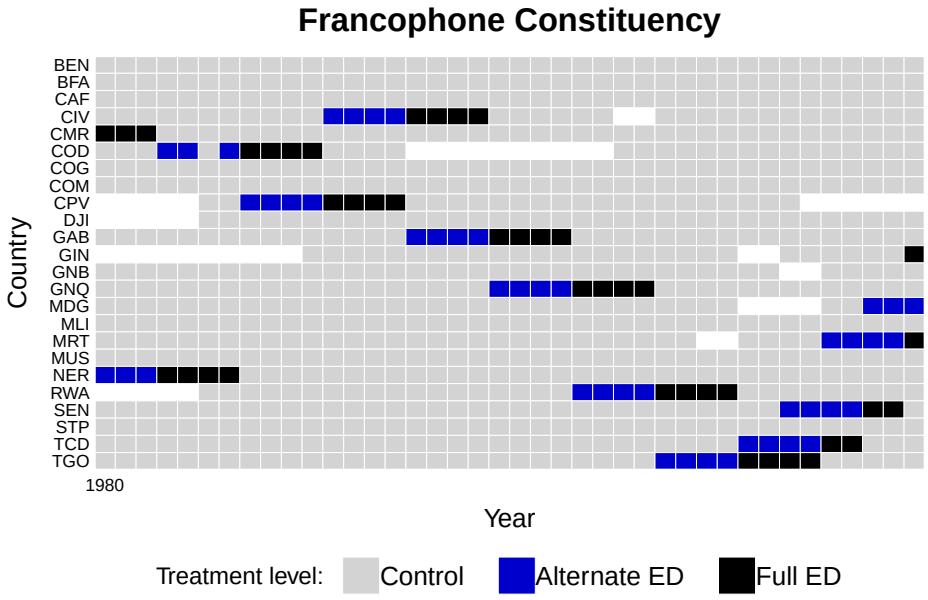
Figures 4a and 4b display variation in treatment over time for the Anglophone and Francophone constituencies, respectively. The figures support the notion that constituencies follow a practice of appointing an individual as an Alternate, who then replaces the lead Executive Director after either one (Anglophone) or two (Francophone) terms. Rarely are Alternates not subsequently appointed as the lead. The figure also indicates that states do follow a practice of rotating control of the seat, including to smaller members like Cape Verde, Equatorial Guinea, Eswatini, and The Gambia. I more systematically investigate the determinants of treatment in the results section.

Dependent Variable

I construct a country-year dataset using the IMF condition-level data from Kentikelenis and Stubbs (2023). The unit of analysis for the Kentikelenis and Stubbs data is the individual condition.



(a)



(b)

Figure 4: Treatment Status Over Time. Navy indicates that the lead Executive Director came from the country, while royal blue indicates that an Alternate Executive Director came from the country; either shade of blue indicates that the unit is treated in that year. Gray indicates membership in the constituency with no director coming from the country. White indicates that the country was not a member of the constituency in that year.

Following Clark (2022), I use the condition year to aggregate to a country-year dataset where the outcome is the count of conditions effective in a given country-year. I focus on non-concessional programs, which are the most ripe for political interference (Reynaud and Vauday, 2009). Once I have subsetted the data to my sample of countries and programs, the dataset contains 22,323 conditions across 267 programs. I then use the condition policy area to create the two classes of conditions of interest. GRID conditions are comprised of poverty, environmental, and institutional conditions. Poverty conditions mandate development of poverty reduction strategies, increases in social spending, and implementation of social welfare policies. Environmental conditions include requirements for land registries, granting of property rights, environmental regulations, and access to commons. Institutional conditions require judicial reforms, anti-corruption measures, competition enhancement, private sector development, efforts to reduce economic crimes, devolution, and similar policies. Labor conditions are already their own category, which includes policy changes in "wage and employment limits, labor market laws, pensions, and social security institutions" and excludes income tax and social sector policies (Kentikelenis and Stubbs, 2023). There are 690 GRID conditions and 979 labor conditions in my dataset.

Analysis

Validation Exercises

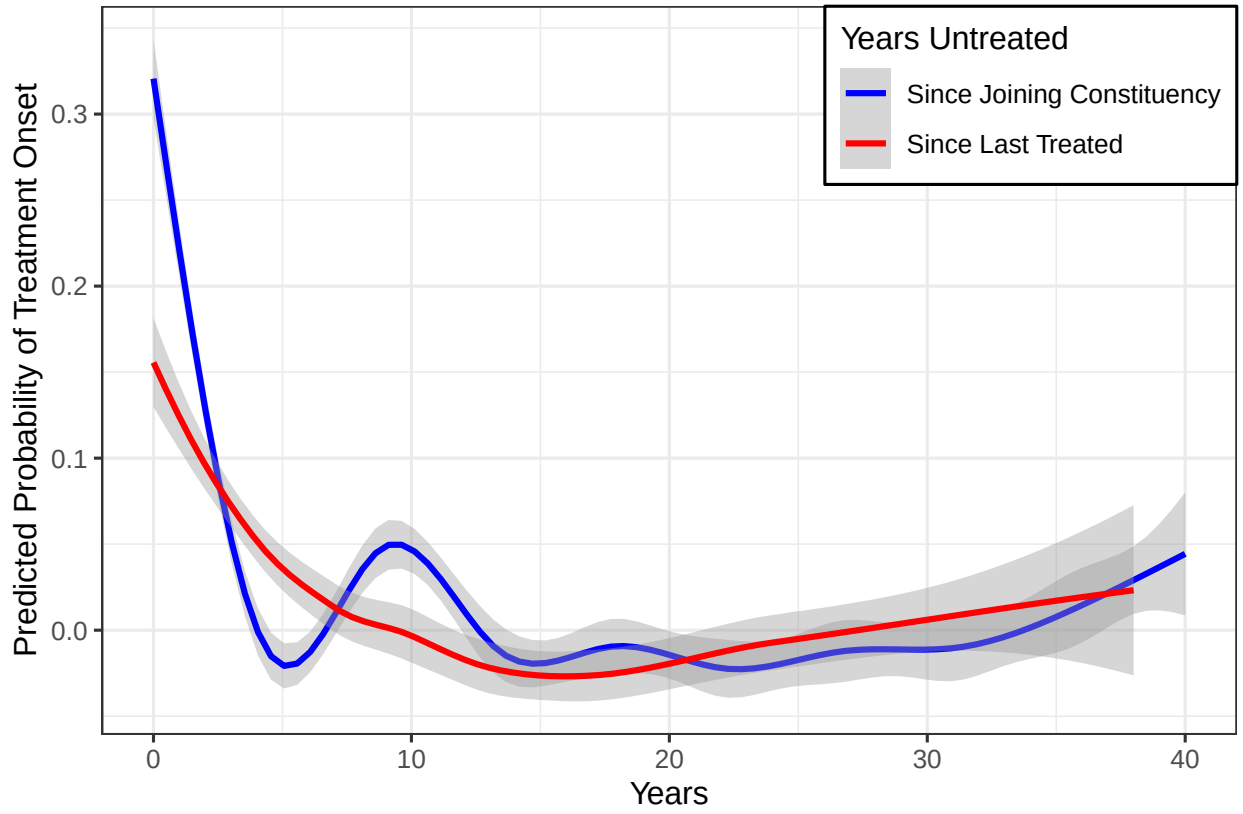
Before testing my main argument, I take on three exercises meant to substantiate the assumptions of my empirical approach. First, I investigate which factors predict treatment onset. A potential threat to inference is if states select into Executive Board membership on the basis of political or economic considerations. By contrast, a more genuine rotational arrangement would depend only on the number of years the country has been untreated. I regress treatment onset on years untreated, the squared term of years untreated, and a dummy variable for previous Executive Board

membership.[12,13] Figure 5 displays the results of this analysis. The results are generally consistent with adherence to a rotational scheme, with some caveats. States are relatively likely to be treated in the time period right after they join the constituency, but this probability declines as years pass, suggesting that there may be some distinct class of states that are never treated. When a state exits the Executive Board, they are unlikely to be treated for some time. Prior members of the Executive Board are less likely to be treated than those who have never been on the Board until about 20 years after they have left the Board. Of the non-rotational variables, only GDP growth and state capacity reach statistical significance at the 95 percent confidence level; if anything, it appears that high growth but low capacity states are favored for EB seats. Even if I exclude the rotational variables, substantive variables besides GDP growth still do not predict treatment. Further, the model with rotational variables has an adjusted R^2 of 0.563, while the model without rotational variables has an adjusted R^2 of -0.001. Moving forward, I present results from three specifications: one with rotational covariates and fixed effects only, one that also includes GDP growth and state capacity, and one that includes the remaining substantive covariates. All non-rotational covariates are lagged, as they are in this analysis.

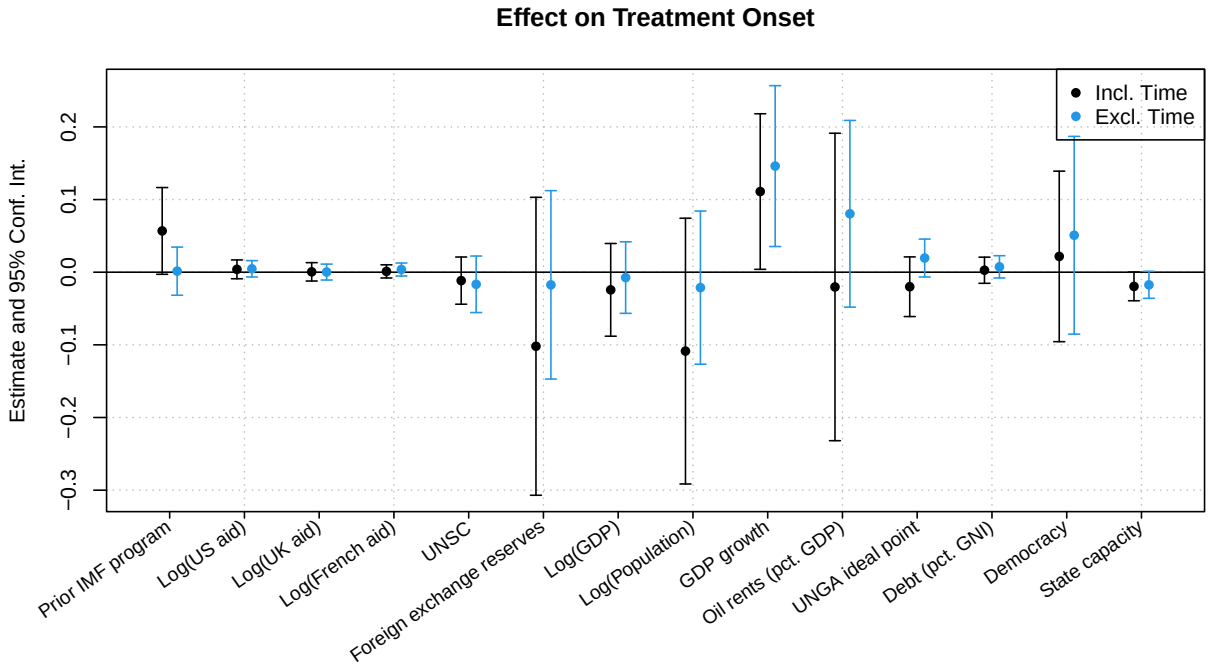
An additional empirical concern is anticipation. It could be the case that, if states expect to join the Executive Board in the near future and receive better treatment while on the Executive Board, they reduce their IMF engagement immediately prior to treatment. This is theoretically plausible, but may inflate estimates by capturing the combined effects of Executive Board membership *and* opting out of IMF programs for some period of time. To examine this possibility, I test whether IMF program participation, overall conditionality, and my conditionality subsets are associated with a dummy variable that takes the value 1 if the country is treated in the next three years. The results,

[12]Because I am interested in treatment onset at this point, I drop observations where the unit is treated and was treated in the prior year.

[13]At the beginning of the study period, the years untreated variables capture years since the beginning of the period. To avoid conflating observations that were recently on the Board with those which are simply near the beginning of the study period, I interact the years untreated variables with the prior EB variable.



(a) Predicted Probability of Joining IMF Executive Board by Years Since Treatment.



(b) Coefficient Plot of Effect of Substantive Variables on Probability of Joining IMF Executive Board.

Figure 5: Analysis of Treatment Onset. Full results are in Table C2.

displayed in Appendix C, show no meaningful correlation between imminent treatment and IMF program participation (Table C3) or IMF conditions (Table C4). I interpret this as evidence that anticipation does not shape behavior.

Finally, do directors treat their home states differently? Descriptively, the answer appears to be yes. Drawing on Executive Board comments from 1995 to 2015 compiled by Forster et al. (2025), Figure 6 displays word count of directors according to whether the country under discussion is represented on the Executive Board, restricting attention to only African constituency members. African directors speak nearly twice as long when their home country is under discussion. No such disparity exists for G5 directors; that is, G5 directors do not speak more (or less) when African directors' home states are under discussion, compared to other African constituency members. Regression analyses in Appendix C show that these differences are not attributable to fixed characteristics of years, discussion countries, or speaker countries. While the analysis is coarse, it provides preliminary evidence that Executive Directors treat their home states differently.

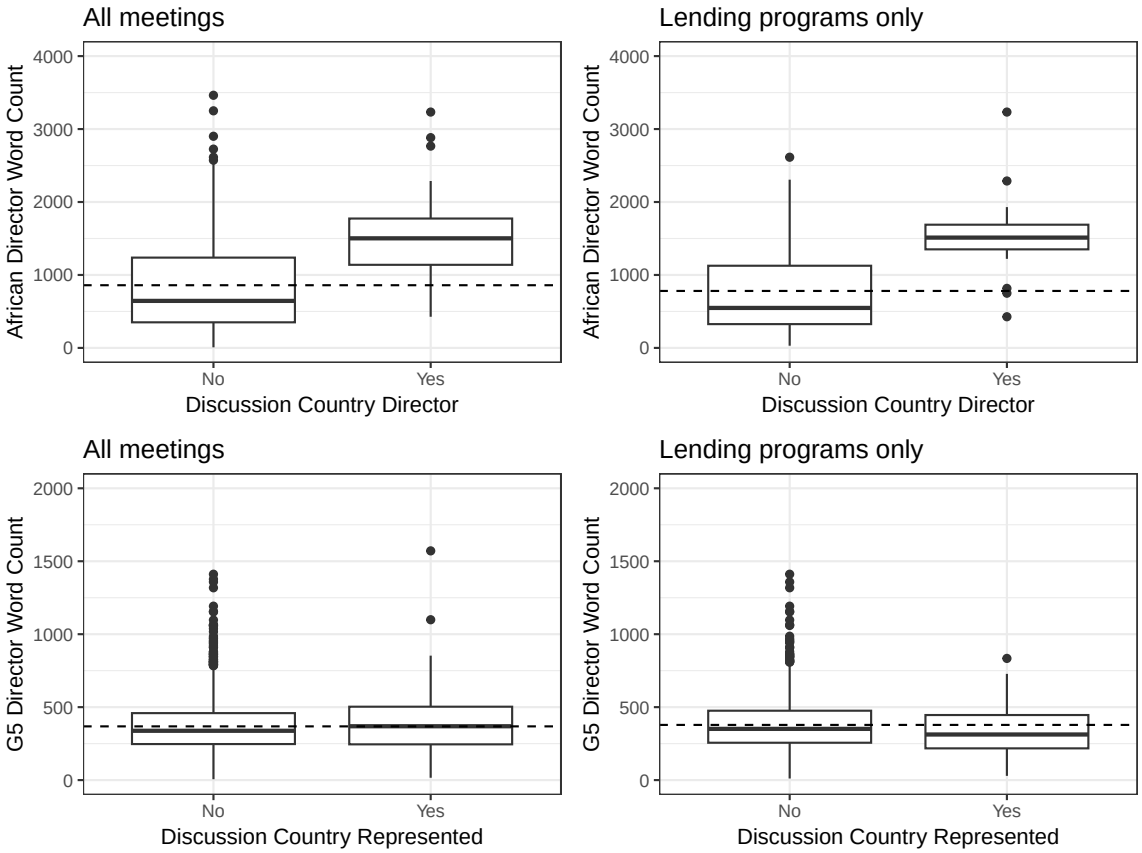


Figure 6: Word Count by Director Constituency and Country under Discussion. The top row displays word count by African directors when their home country is under discussion by the Executive Board compared to other constituency members. The bottom row displays mean word count by G5 directors when the discussion country is represented by an African director. The left column displays box plots for all EB meetings, while the right column displays only meetings concerning lending programs. Dashed lines represent the mean by each type of director for each meeting type.

Unit of Analysis

The unit of analysis for my preferred specification is the country-year. Conditions from the same IMF program can be effective in different years, meaning that the analysis captures both the intensity of conditionality and the way in which it is spread across time. In robustness checks, I also conduct analyses that take the IMF program-year as the unit of analysis (i.e., country-years with no IMF program are treated as missing).

This approach differs from the standard approach to estimating the effect of some treatment on IMF conditionality in two key ways. First, I include country-years where the country is not participating in an IMF program, whereas other literature (e.g., Clark, 2022) often drops these observations. While this approach is standard in the literature, it may not be ideal in settings like mine where treatment affects the likelihood of participation in an IMF program.[14] In that case, subsetting by a posttreatment outcome like IMF program participation induces posttreatment bias.[15] Intuitively, the concern is that treated countries in IMF programs are fundamentally distinct from untreated countries in IMF programs, weakening my claim to exogenous treatment. Additionally, the exogeneity of my treatment only applies in the country-year panel. Table 1 illustrates how the samples in the two analyses differ. Second, I use a linear model instead of Poisson or negative binomial models which may deal better with outcomes that are count variables. This eases interpretation of marginal effects.[16]

For the country-year analyses – my preferred specification – I estimate the following equation using OLS.

[14]Table B1 suggests this may be the case, as do the results from Malan (2018).

[15]For a thorough discussion of this problem, see Knox et al. (2020).

[16]As I show later, using the Poisson model and program-year sample leads to unstable and implausibly large estimates. The program-year sample drops treated observations who do not enter IMF programs. I discuss this later with a leave-one-country-out exercise.

				Program-Years Only		My Analysis	
Country	Year	EB Member	IMF Program	Conditions	Included?	Conditions	Included?
Cote d'Ivoire	1993	Yes	No	**NA**	**No**	**0**	**Yes**
Cote d'Ivoire	1994	Yes	Yes	53	Yes	53	Yes

Table 1: Difference in Data Structure in Program-Year versus Country-Year Analysis

$$ConditionCount_{it} = \beta \cdot ExecBoard_{it} + \gamma \cdot \mathbf{x}_{i,t-1} + Y_t + C_i + \epsilon_{it}$$

where $ConditionCount_{it}$ is the number of IMF conditions in a given country-year and $ExecBoard_{it}$ is an indicator variable equal to one if the country is an Executive Board member in year t and zero otherwise. The parameter of interest is β, representing the marginal effect of Executive Board membership on the count of IMF conditions in a country-year. I include country (C_i) and year (Y_t) fixed effects, as well as a vector of lagged control variables $\mathbf{x}_{i,t-1}$. Standard errors are clustered at the country level.

Consistent with prior literature, I also estimate program-year specifications using regression models intended for count data (e.g., Clark, 2022).[17] The regression equation is below. Because there are relatively few observations per year, year enters as a linear control instead of fixed effects. The other details of the analysis remain the same.

$$\log(ConditionCount_{it} \mid \mathbf{x}_{i,t-1}) = \beta \cdot ExecBoard_{it} + \gamma \cdot \mathbf{x}_{i,t-1} + C_i$$

[17]This work often uses negative binomial models, which are best when the outcome variable is overdispersed, as is the case for the total count of conditions. However, the overdispersion is not present in the subsets of conditions I use, so I estimate pseudo-Poisson maximum likelihood (PPML) models instead.

Results

Table 2 presents the results of the analyses of Hypothesis 1.[18] The results are largely consistent with my theory. In the country-year specifications, estimates indicate that Executive Board membership increases the count of GRID conditions by about 0.67 to 0.79 conditions. These estimates are precisely estimated and substantively meaningful: the mean count of GRID conditions among control units is 0.38. The results for the program-year analysis are less consistent. The first two specifications are significant in the expected direction, but the estimate is smaller in magnitude and not statistically significant when the full set of covariates is included. The estimated average marginal effect in the first two specifications is about 3.72 more GRID conditions, but that estimate falls to 1.65 in the third specification.[19] As discussed above, the program-year specifications suffer from post-treatment bias related to selection into IMF programs, but the insignificant result in the third specification is still worth noting.

Table 2: Effect of EB Membership on GRID Program Conditions. Models 1-3 are country-years (zeroes included); Models 4-6 are program-years. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variable:	Count of GRID conditions					
Model:	(1) OLS	(2) OLS	(3) OLS	(4) Poisson	(5) Poisson	(6) Poisson
Variables						
Any Exec. Director	0.666***	0.697***	0.794***	1.63*	1.63*	1.01
	(0.176)	(0.182)	(0.198)	(0.824)	(0.818)	(0.771)
Fixed-effects						
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes			
Unit	Country-year	Country-year	Country-year	Program-year	Program-year	Program-year
Covariates	Rotation	Limited	Full	Rotation	Limited	Full
Fit statistics						
Observations	1,679	1,631	1,378	649	631	558

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

[18] Each specification's covariate set is labeled Rotation (board-rotation controls only), Limited (adds GDP growth and state capacity), or Full (adds the complete covariate set); full covariate results are in Table D9 in the appendix.

[19] Note that the estimated marginal effects intuitively should be much larger in the program-year sample because years without IMF programs enter the country-year sample as zeroes in the outcome.

Tables 3 presents the results for Hypothesis 2.[20] All estimates are statistically significant in the hypothesized positive direction. The country-year estimates indicate an increase of 0.40-0.53 labor conditions, compared to a control mean of 0.58. For the program-year estimates, the coefficients (2.94 in the baseline specification, 2.25 with the full covariate set) imply a multiplicative effect of roughly 19-fold and 9-fold, respectively, relative to a control group mean of 1.46; as discussed below, however, these program-year point estimates are not stable to sample perturbations and should be interpreted with caution.

Table 3: Effect of EB Membership on Labor Conditions. Models 1-3 are country-years (zeroes included); Models 4-6 are program-years. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variable:	Count of labor conditions					
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
	OLS	OLS	OLS	Poisson	Poisson	Poisson
Variables						
Any Exec. Director	0.398*	0.411*	0.532*	2.94***	2.95***	2.25***
	(0.191)	(0.191)	(0.241)	(0.608)	(0.590)	(0.493)
Fixed-effects						
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes			
Unit	Country-year	Country-year	Country-year	Program-year	Program-year	Program-year
Covariates	Rotation	Limited	Full	Rotation	Limited	Full
Fit statistics						
Observations	1,679	1,631	1,378	621	603	531

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Additional Analyses

My theory implies variation in demand for labor and GRID conditions on the basis of borrower-level variables.[21] I explore these in the Appendix.

GRID conditions primarily bolster support among the masses, while labor conditions primarily bolster support among elites. This implies that effects should be conditional on regime type, with democracies using Executive Board membership to secure more GRID conditions while autocracies

[20] Full covariate results are in Table D10 in the appendix.

[21] Given the small number of treated units and likely endogeneity in the moderators, I interpret results with caution.

focus on labor conditions. To test this expectation, I interact treatment with the electoral democracy index from Varieties of Democracy (V-DEM). The results are suggestively consistent with my expectation.[22] The marginal effect of Executive Board membership on GRID conditions increases with democracy, but the effect on labor conditions declines. However, the confidence intervals are large.

Regimes with powerful organized labor movements should be most interested in securing labor conditions. This may be true even if labor supports the government: Gunaydin (2018) finds that leftist governments are more likely to agree to labor conditions. I expect that borrowers with higher independent union activity take on more labor conditions. I interact treatment with a variable that captures engagement in independent trade unions, also from V-DEM. The results are consistent with my theory.[23] The marginal effect of Executive Board membership on labor conditions increases with union engagement in the borrower country. This change in marginal effect is specific to labor conditions: the marginal effect on other condition types is decreasing in union participation and does not change significance of the treatment.

Executive Board membership should weaken labor activism in borrower states, according to my theory. This should be especially true in authoritarian regimes, where governments seek to ingratiate themselves with the owner of capital, and in countries that enter IMF programs, where they can secure the relevant labor conditions. To test this expectation, I use the same union engagement variable, measured five years after a given observation. I hold fixed the union engagement variable in $t-1$ to adjust for baseline differences and better track change. I find that Executive Board membership is significantly associated with less union engagement in $t+5$. This effect only exists in autocratic states and in states who participate in IMF programs, who are the states who most pursue labor-repressing conditions.[24]

[22] See Table E13 and Figure E6.
[23] See Table E14 and Figure E7.
[24] See Table E15, Figure E8,and Figure E9.

Taken together, these analyses provide additional support for my theory. The effects of Executive Board membership on GRID and labor conditions are largest in countries where demand for the particular condition type is highest. In addition, Executive Board membership significantly weakens labor in authoritarian regimes.

Alternative Explanation: Great Power Pressure

An alternative explanation for the increase in total conditions is that the great powers who dominate the IMF want to keep small states on the Executive Board in check. In order to ensure that Executive Board members accede to great powers' political agendas, great powers push for increased conditionality to create institutional levers to punish defectors. States who cooperate with great power demands may be more likely to be declared compliant with those condition where a comparable state who resists great powers is called noncompliant. This is consistent with accounts of politicized enforcement of IMF conditions (e.g., Stone, 2004).

If this argument is true, increased conditionality should be found across all sectors, including in policy areas where great powers favor conditionality and small states do not. These conditions should require unpopular policy changes and do nothing to undermine domestic opposition. Drawing again on Heinzel, Kern, et al. (2025), I focus on so-called Washington Consensus conditions, which impose unpopular austerity requirements that tend to provoke public unrest. Because these conditions do not further borrower domestic political goals, Executive Board representation should have no effect or decrease their frequency.

I use the same empirical approach described above to test this alternative explanation. The results are displayed in Table 4.[25] While point estimates are positive across specifications, the estimates are never statistically significant. While the strongest evidence would be a negative effect of Board membership on Washington Consensus conditions, the lack of significant increases is consistent

[25] Full covariate results are in Table D12 in the appendix.

with my theory of small state benefits.

Table 4: Effect of EB Membership on Washington Consensus Program Conditions. Models 1-3 are country-years (zeroes included); Models 4-6 are program-years. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variable:	Count of WC conditions					
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
	OLS	OLS	OLS	Poisson	Poisson	Poisson
Variables						
Any Exec. Director	1.99	2.01	1.67	0.071	0.111	0.212
	(1.10)	(1.12)	(1.07)	(0.154)	(0.165)	(0.139)
Fixed-effects						
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes			
Unit	Country-year	Country-year	Country-year	Program-year	Program-year	Program-year
Covariates	Rotation	Limited	Full	Rotation	Limited	Full
Fit statistics						
Observations	1,679	1,631	1,378	661	643	570

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Robustness

Given the small number of treated units, a reasonable concern with the empirical results is sensitivity to the exclusion of individual units. It may be the case that the significant and positive results are driven by a small number of countries where treatment coincided with some shock that drove the number of conditions up. To rule this possibility out, I reestimate the main analyses, leaving a country out each time. I display the results in Appendix F. In the country-year models, coefficients are generally stable. In particular, 100 percent of models with total conditions and GRID conditions are positive and significant, while the effect on labor conditions is significant in 74 percent of reanalyses (91 percent with the full set of covariates). Reassuringly, the effect on Washington Consensus conditions is significant in 6 percent or fewer of specifications (zero percent of specifications with the full covariate set).

The program-year estimates, by contrast, are not stable. Removal of non-program years exacerbates the issues posed by the small number of treated units. All treated observations where the

unit is not in an IMF program are removed, as are all observations where the unit is only in an IMF program for one year (due to the country fixed effects). Given these issues, I base my conclusions on the country-year analyses.

Conclusion

These findings raise several key implications for scholars of international relations and international organizations. First, they further highlight geopolitically weak states as worthy subjects of study. In my theory, small states strategically leverage IOs to further their domestic political goals. This practice occurs in one of the world's most important and great power-dominated international organizations, far from a most likely case for small state influence. Interest in the international political capabilities of small states has grown in recent years (Snidal et al., 2024). This growing literature highlights the consequential actions that small states take in a variety of important organizations, including (but not limited to) the IMF (Ferry and Zeitz, 2024), UN General Assembly (Arias et al., 2025; Luongo, 2026; Mesquita, 2024; Morse and Coggins, 2024), and UN Security Council (Mikulaschek, 2021).

Second, it suggests that, given the opportunity, small states wish to use IMF resources to implement particular domestic political agendas. This finding ostensibly stands in contrast to work that assumes recipient states want fewer conditions (Clark, 2022; Ferry and Zeitz, 2024). However, it is not necessarily true that these results are in conflict. For example, it may be the case that, given improved ability to shape conditions directly (by, for example, serving on the IMF EB), states want more conditions of certain kinds, but when they do not have that level of influence, they want fewer conditions. Future research can continue to improve our knowledge of what exactly borrowing states want from the IMF, and if and how that changes as a function of any number of variables.

Future research can explore how states leverage different types of conditions and whether they

effectively advance borrower political goals. As described above, most work assumes borrowers want fewer conditions, but the results here suggest a more complicated story. Are states with stronger and more adversarial organized labor more likely to agree to labor conditions? Do those conditions decrease the strength of labor? We already know that GRID conditions increase the popularity of IMF programs (Heinzel, Kern, et al., 2025). Are democratic states or states with elections in the near future more likely to pursue those conditions? Answering these questions will improve our knowledge of how borrowers behave within the IMF specifically and within IOs more broadly. It also furthers our knowledge of the impact of IMF conditions (e.g., Lang, 2021).

While this paper focuses on lending practices as the outcome of interest, future research might also tackle when great power-dominated organizations grant small states larger institutional roles. This is of particular interest given an apparent rise in success for initiatives that give small states more meaningful institutional roles. The IMF's addition of a third African seat now grants another opportunity for the allocation of particularistic goods, as well as the possibility of future programmatic changes that come from greater institutional presence. At the UNSC – another highly salient international organization – the Biden Administration recently backed a push to add two permanent seats for African states (albeit without the veto rights accorded to the P5), as well as a non-permanent seat for small island nations (Lederer, 2024). This is another institution where scholarly work suggests small states can effectively pursue their interests (Mikulaschek, 2021). Under what conditions do pushes for more formal representation succeed, especially in organizations that are highly salient to powerful states?

Generally, these results modify accounts that portray international organizations as entirely dominated by great powers, with small states as little more than passive observers who are structurally incapable of advancing their interests. Instead, they suggest that small states go along with great power preeminence because it provides them some limited but impactful benefits.

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A Additional Figures

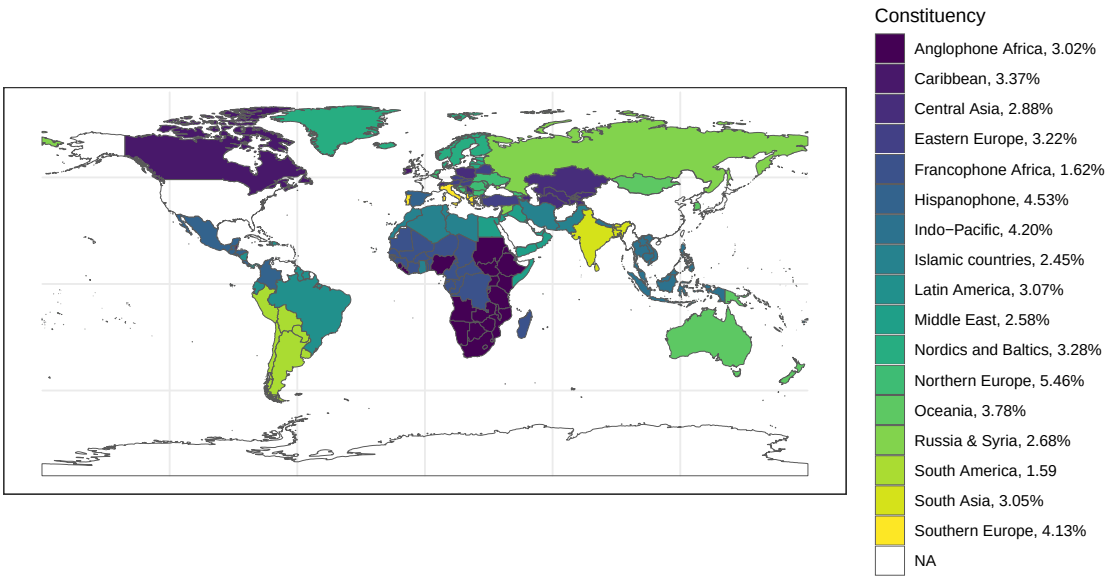


Figure A1: IMF Constituencies as of 2024

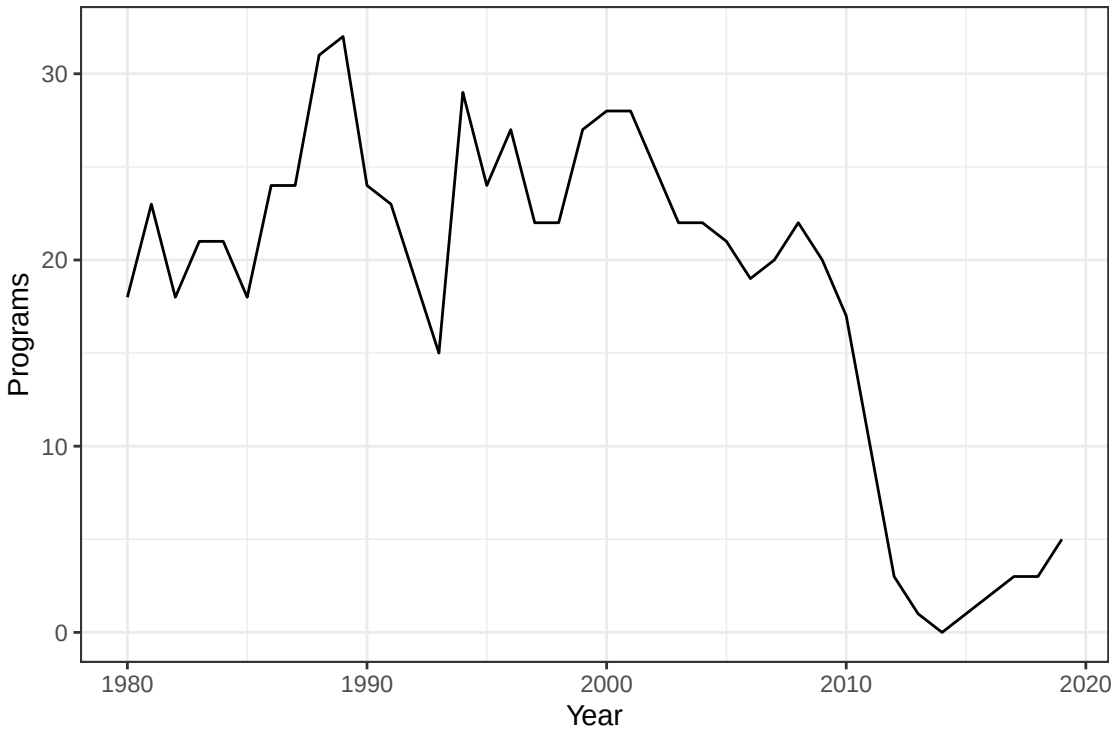


Figure A2: IMF Programs to African Constituency Members Over Time.

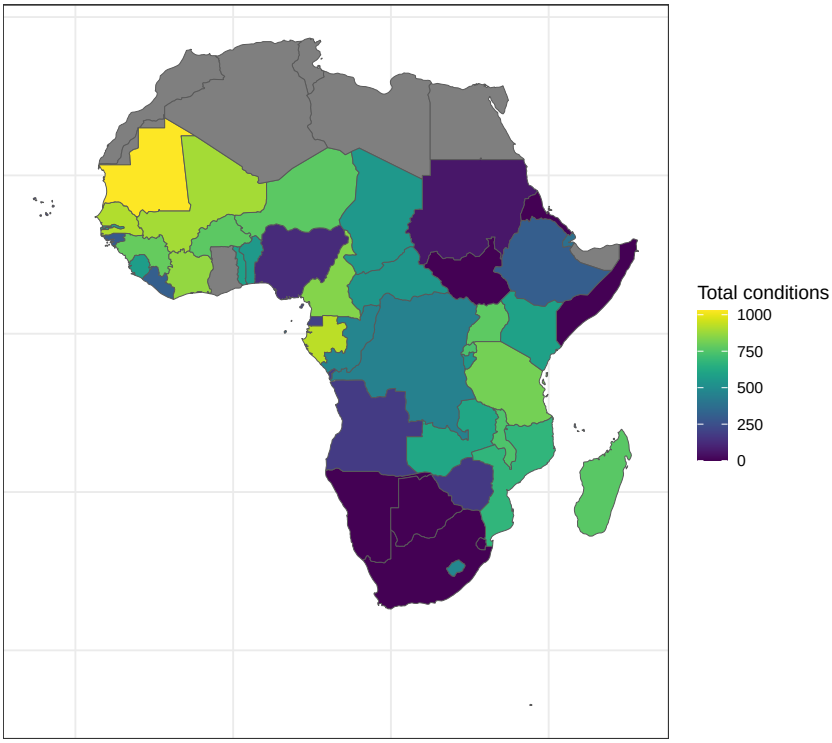


Figure A3: Conditions to African Constituency Members over Sample Period.

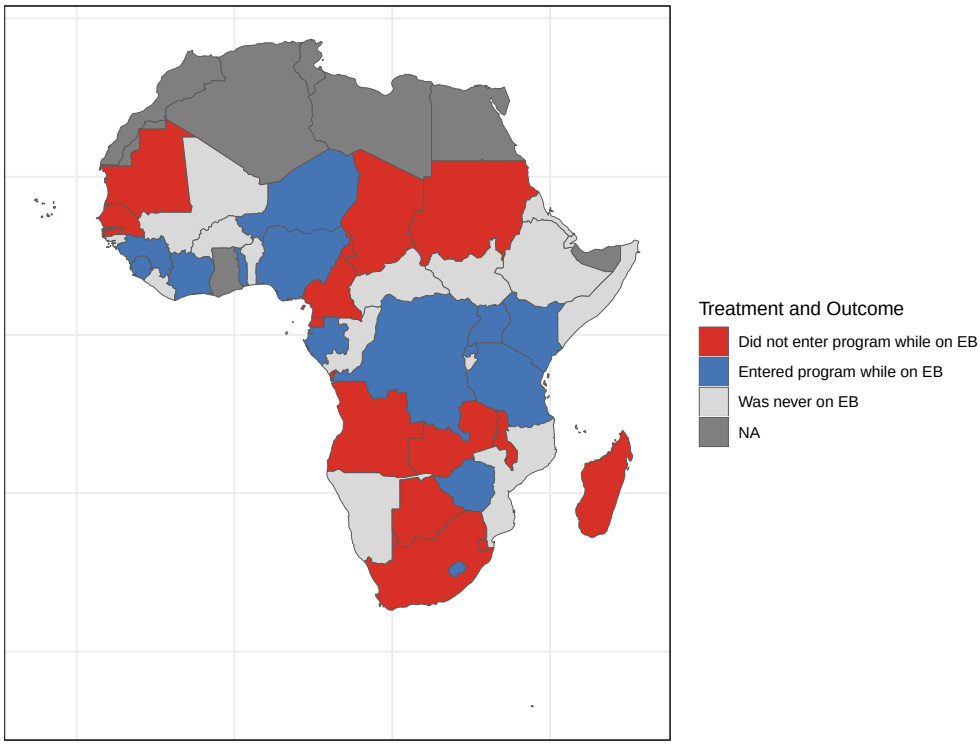


Figure A4: Treatment and Outcome Values over Entire Study Period.

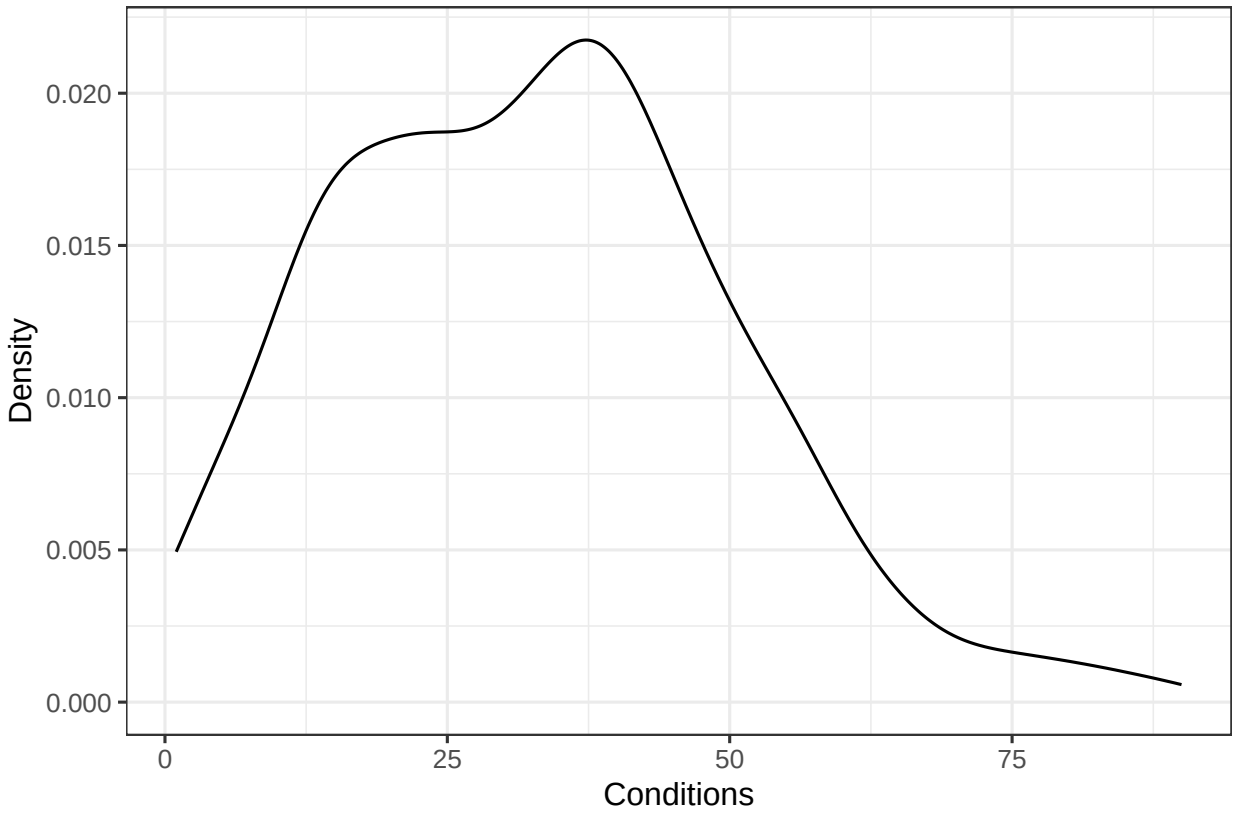


Figure A5: Distribution of Count of Conditions on IMF Programs.

B Additional Tables

Table B1: Effect of EB Membership on IMF Program Status.

Dependent Variable:	Under IMF program			
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Variables				
Any Exec. Director	0.159*		0.132	
	(0.073)		(0.075)	
Lead Exec. Director		0.147*		0.128
		(0.068)		(0.076)
Alt. Exec. Director		0.170		0.135
		(0.089)		(0.086)
Years untreated	0.028*	0.029*	0.015	0.015
	(0.012)	(0.012)	(0.013)	(0.013)
Prior EB member	0.004	0.012	-0.060	-0.058
	(0.090)	(0.096)	(0.082)	(0.087)
Years untreated square	-0.0006	-0.0006	-0.0004	-0.0004
	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)
GDP growth	-0.073	-0.073	0.216	0.216
	(0.180)	(0.181)	(0.252)	(0.252)
State capacity	0.113***	0.114***	0.080*	0.080*
	(0.029)	(0.030)	(0.035)	(0.035)
Years untreated × Prior EB member	0.010	0.009	0.013	0.012
	(0.016)	(0.016)	(0.013)	(0.013)
Prior EB member × I(years_since_last_treat$\hat{2}$)	-0.0005	-0.0005	-0.0003	-0.0003
	(0.0005)	(0.0005)	(0.0005)	(0.0005)
Prior IMF program			0.526***	0.526***
			(0.061)	(0.061)
Log(US aid)			-0.019	-0.019
			(0.020)	(0.020)
Log(UK aid)			-0.0004	-0.0004
			(0.026)	(0.026)
Log(French aid)			0.068***	0.068***
			(0.014)	(0.014)
UNSC			-0.023	-0.023
			(0.071)	(0.071)
Foreign exchange reserves			-0.028	-0.028
			(0.336)	(0.337)
Log(GDP)			-0.210*	-0.210*
			(0.090)	(0.090)
Log(Population)			-0.042	-0.042
			(0.239)	(0.239)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			-0.060	-0.062
			(0.254)	(0.256)
UNGA ideal point			0.035	0.035
			(0.080)	(0.080)
Debt (pct. GNI)			-0.010	-0.010
			(0.046)	(0.046)
Democracy			0.285	0.285
			(0.233)	(0.233)
Fixed-effects				
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics				
Observations	1,631	1,631	1,378	1,378

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

C Full Tables for Validation Exercises

Table C2: Determinants of Treatment Onset.

Dependent Variable:	Treatment onset		
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)
Variables			
Years untreated	-0.056***	-0.044***	
	(0.006)	(0.006)	
Prior EB member	-0.683***	-0.605***	
	(0.050)	(0.057)	
Years untreated square	0.0009***	0.0006***	
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	
Prior IMF program	0.057		0.001
	(0.030)		(0.016)
Log(US aid)	0.004		0.005
	(0.006)		(0.006)
Log(UK aid)	0.0005		0.0002
	(0.006)		(0.005)
Log(French aid)	0.001		0.004
	(0.004)		(0.004)
UNSC	-0.012		-0.017
	(0.016)		(0.019)
Foreign exchange reserves	-0.102		-0.017
	(0.102)		(0.064)
Log(GDP)	-0.024		-0.007
	(0.032)		(0.024)
Log(Population)	-0.109		-0.021
	(0.091)		(0.052)
GDP growth	0.111*		0.146*
	(0.053)		(0.055)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)	-0.020		0.080
	(0.105)		(0.064)
UNGA ideal point	-0.020		0.019
	(0.020)		(0.013)
Debt (pct. GNI)	0.003		0.007
	(0.009)		(0.008)
Democracy	0.022		0.051
	(0.058)		(0.067)
State capacity	-0.020		-0.017
	(0.010)		(0.009)
Years untreated × Prior EB member	0.031***	0.019**	
	(0.007)	(0.006)	
Prior EB member × I(years_since_last_treat$\hat{2}$)	-0.0006***	-0.0004**	
	(0.0001)	(0.0001)	
Fixed-effects			
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics			
Observations	1,268	1,544	1,268
Adjusted R^2	0.56308	0.48276	-0.00116

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Table C3: Pre-Treatment Differences in IMF Program Participation. Sample restricted to country-years not yet on the Executive Board; treat_soon3 flags the three years before EB onset. Outcome is an indicator for being under an IMF program. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variable:	Under IMF program		
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)
Variables			
EB membership within 3 years	-0.030	-0.025	0.0001
	(0.080)	(0.072)	(0.075)
Prior EB member	0.170	0.301	0.098
	(0.229)	(0.221)	(0.216)
Years untreated	0.045**	0.056**	0.033
	(0.016)	(0.017)	(0.024)
Years untreated, squared	-0.0008*	-0.0010*	-0.0006
	(0.0004)	(0.0004)	(0.0005)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	-0.004	-0.012	-0.002
	(0.022)	(0.023)	(0.022)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	-0.0002	-5.81×10^{-5}	-3.16×10^{-5}
	(0.0007)	(0.0007)	(0.0007)
GDP growth		-0.0005	0.003
		(0.002)	(0.003)
State capacity		0.165***	0.111**
		(0.037)	(0.038)
Prior IMF program			0.502***
			(0.067)
Log(US aid)			-0.016
			(0.023)
Log(UK aid)			0.0009
			(0.028)
Log(French aid)			0.059***
			(0.015)
UNSC			-0.010
			(0.071)
Foreign exchange reserves			0.311
			(0.338)
Log(GDP)			-0.289*
			(0.112)
Log(Population)			0.091
			(0.262)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			-0.0008
			(0.003)
UNGA ideal point			0.022
			(0.091)
Debt (pct. GNI)			0.0002
			(0.0005)
Democracy			0.478
			(0.238)
Fixed-effects			
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics			
Observations	1,391	1,352	1,141

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Table C4: Pre-Treatment Differences in Program Conditions by Type. Sample restricted to country-years not yet on the Executive Board; treat_soon3 flags the three years before EB onset. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variables:	Count of total conditions			Count of labor conditions			Count of GRID conditions			Count of WC conditions		
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)	(12)
Variables												
EB membership within 3 years	-0.677	-0.807	-0.190	0.173	0.142	0.182	0.038	0.033	0.076	0.093	0.057	0.184
	(3.52)	(3.23)	(3.68)	(0.280)	(0.246)	(0.266)	(0.225)	(0.210)	(0.233)	(1.32)	(1.25)	(1.43)
Prior EB member	7.28	12.0	3.97	0.481	0.817	1.84*	-0.465	-0.231	-0.382	5.42	6.68	1.82
	(10.6)	(10.8)	(9.19)	(0.429)	(0.570)	(0.759)	(0.407)	(0.402)	(0.533)	(3.52)	(3.64)	(3.51)
Years untreated	1.75**	2.19**	1.55	0.133**	0.165**	0.253**	0.042	0.066	0.051	0.764***	0.884***	0.489
	(0.643)	(0.730)	(0.880)	(0.040)	(0.054)	(0.080)	(0.034)	(0.037)	(0.058)	(0.217)	(0.251)	(0.366)
Years untreated, squared	-0.032*	-0.038*	-0.029	-0.003**	-0.003**	-0.005**	-0.001	-0.002	-0.001	-0.014**	-0.015**	-0.009
	(0.014)	(0.015)	(0.019)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.0008)	(0.0009)	(0.001)	(0.005)	(0.005)	(0.008)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	0.006	-0.328	-0.068	-0.058	-0.080	-0.193*	0.020	-0.002	-0.009	-0.217	-0.297	-0.021
	(0.934)	(0.985)	(0.950)	(0.063)	(0.072)	(0.081)	(0.049)	(0.048)	(0.062)	(0.319)	(0.344)	(0.368)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	-0.013	-0.005	-0.0004	0.0006	0.001	0.004	-0.001	-0.0006	-0.0002	0.0002	0.002	-0.0003
	(0.028)	(0.029)	(0.029)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.011)
GDP growth		0.050	0.252**		0.006	0.030*		0.003	0.013**		0.015	0.086*
		(0.068)	(0.090)		(0.008)	(0.012)		(0.003)	(0.005)		(0.026)	(0.038)
State capacity		5.16**	3.74*		0.267	0.136		0.203*	0.175		1.66**	1.38*
		(1.53)	(1.54)		(0.176)	(0.198)		(0.085)	(0.091)		(0.604)	(0.640)
Prior IMF program			13.1***			0.122			0.176			5.61***
			(2.58)			(0.267)			(0.152)			(1.08)
Log(US aid)			-1.45			0.003			-0.077			-0.598
			(0.907)			(0.071)			(0.070)			(0.381)
Log(UK aid)			1.23			0.038			0.017			0.227
			(1.16)			(0.091)			(0.059)			(0.375)
Log(French aid)			3.04***			0.220***			0.047			1.04***
			(0.576)			(0.057)			(0.042)			(0.209)
UNSC			0.626			-0.058			0.202			0.634
			(3.24)			(0.293)			(0.228)			(1.37)
Foreign exchange reserves			4.05			1.39			-0.063			0.822
			(12.1)			(1.07)			(0.936)			(5.36)
Log(GDP)			-13.0***			-0.649			-0.555*			-4.05*
			(3.64)			(0.433)			(0.229)			(1.75)
Log(Population)			2.49			-0.698			1.00			1.38
			(9.11)			(0.749)			(0.721)			(3.73)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			-0.194*			-0.021*			-0.019			-0.030
			(0.091)			(0.009)			(0.015)			(0.042)
UNGA ideal point			-1.54			-0.130			-0.397			-0.851
			(2.74)			(0.288)			(0.251)			(1.38)
Debt (pct. GNI)			-0.006			-0.0009			0.0009			-0.0008
			(0.018)			(0.002)			(0.001)			(0.008)
Democracy			13.4			1.95			0.908			3.27
			(10.0)			(1.10)			(0.681)			(3.51)
Fixed-effects												
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics												
Observations	1,391	1,352	1,141	1,391	1,352	1,141	1,391	1,352	1,141	1,391	1,352	1,141

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Table C5: Analysis of Word Count.

Dependent Variable:	Word Count			
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Variables				
Discussion Country Director	0.2183***	0.6130***	0.2820***	0.7180***
	(0.0426)	(0.0615)	(0.0690)	(0.0917)
Fixed-effects				
Discussion Country	Yes		Yes	
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Speaker Country		Yes		Yes
Fit statistics				
Observations	930	930	555	555

Clustered (Speaker Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.01, **: 0.05, *: 0.1*

Table C6: Placebo Test: Analysis of Word Count by G5 Directors.

Dependent Variable:	Word Count			
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Variables				
G5 Director, Discussion Country Represented	0.0288	0.0365	-0.0944	-0.0654
	(0.0593)	(0.0604)	(0.1008)	(0.1009)
Fixed-effects				
Discussion Country	Yes		Yes	
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Speaker Country		Yes		Yes
Fit statistics				
Observations	1,885	1,885	1,113	1,113

Clustered (Speaker Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.01, **: 0.05, *: 0.1*

D Full Tables for Main Results

Table D7: Effect of EB Membership on Count of IMF Program Conditions, Including Zeroes in Non-Program Years. Observations are country-years. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variable:	Count of total conditions					
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
Variables						
Any Exec. Director	7.88**	8.00**	8.40*			
	(2.87)	(2.87)	(3.16)			
Lead Exec. Director				7.64*	7.36*	7.84*
				(2.96)	(2.97)	(3.30)
Alt. Exec. Director				8.09*	8.56*	8.91*
				(3.14)	(3.21)	(3.46)
Prior EB member	3.64	3.31	0.307	3.80	3.71	0.675
	(3.41)	(3.43)	(2.99)	(3.59)	(3.60)	(3.22)
Years untreated	1.30***	1.35**	1.09*	1.30***	1.37**	1.12*
	(0.366)	(0.395)	(0.440)	(0.370)	(0.406)	(0.447)
Years untreated, squared	-0.024*	-0.025*	-0.023	-0.024*	-0.026*	-0.023*
	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.011)	(0.010)	(0.011)	(0.011)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	0.463	0.395	0.377	0.452	0.366	0.348
	(0.592)	(0.612)	(0.510)	(0.600)	(0.624)	(0.520)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	-0.020	-0.018	-0.010	-0.020	-0.018	-0.010
	(0.018)	(0.019)	(0.018)	(0.018)	(0.019)	(0.019)
GDP growth		0.037	0.221*		0.037	0.221*
		(0.070)	(0.091)		(0.071)	(0.092)
State capacity		3.81**	2.92*		3.83**	2.94*
		(1.18)	(1.32)		(1.19)	(1.32)
Prior IMF program			14.4***			14.4***
			(2.75)			(2.75)
Log(US aid)			-1.20			-1.20
			(0.724)			(0.724)
Log(UK aid)			0.832			0.836
			(1.12)			(1.13)
Log(French aid)			3.34***			3.34***
			(0.489)			(0.488)
UNSC			0.094			0.122
			(2.92)			(2.90)
Foreign exchange reserves			-4.95			-4.97
			(11.9)			(11.9)
Log(GDP)			-10.1**			-10.1**
			(2.89)			(2.89)
Log(Population)			-1.88			-1.84
			(8.49)			(8.48)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			-0.147			-0.150
			(0.074)			(0.076)
UNGA ideal point			-1.21			-1.20
			(2.18)			(2.18)
Debt (pct. GNI)			-0.013			-0.013
			(0.015)			(0.015)
Democracy			6.54			6.54
			(9.51)			(9.50)
Fixed-effects						
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics						
Observations	1,679	1,631	1,378	1,679	1,631	1,378

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Table D8: Effect of EB Membership on Count of IMF Program Conditions. Observations are program-years. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variable:	Count of total conditions					
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
Variables						
Any Exec. Director	0.169	0.189	0.240*			
	(0.140)	(0.137)	(0.113)			
Lead Exec. Director				0.083	0.114	0.197
				(0.167)	(0.168)	(0.143)
Alt. Exec. Director				0.254*	0.256*	0.281**
				(0.121)	(0.118)	(0.107)
Prior EB member	0.697**	0.704***	0.462*	0.743***	0.742***	0.493**
	(0.214)	(0.210)	(0.187)	(0.200)	(0.199)	(0.181)
Years untreated	0.111***	0.109***	0.073***	0.114***	0.111***	0.076***
	(0.012)	(0.012)	(0.014)	(0.012)	(0.012)	(0.015)
Years untreated, squared	-0.003***	-0.003***	-0.002***	-0.003***	-0.003***	-0.002***
	(0.0004)	(0.0004)	(0.0004)	(0.0004)	(0.0004)	(0.0004)
Year	0.005	0.003	-0.013	0.004	0.002	-0.014
	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.021)	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.021)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	-0.094***	-0.091***	-0.061*	-0.099***	-0.095***	-0.064*
	(0.026)	(0.026)	(0.025)	(0.026)	(0.027)	(0.026)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	0.003**	0.003*	0.002*	0.003**	0.003**	0.002*
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
GDP growth		0.007**	0.006		0.007**	0.006
		(0.003)	(0.003)		(0.003)	(0.003)
State capacity		-0.010	0.008		-0.007	0.010
		(0.047)	(0.053)		(0.049)	(0.055)
Prior IMF program			0.243			0.241
			(0.131)			(0.130)
Log(US aid)			-0.027			-0.026
			(0.025)			(0.025)
Log(UK aid)			0.046			0.045
			(0.032)			(0.032)
Log(French aid)			0.053*			0.052*
			(0.025)			(0.025)
UNSC			0.082			0.085
			(0.093)			(0.093)
Foreign exchange reserves			0.391			0.408
			(0.523)			(0.526)
Log(GDP)			-0.433*			-0.428*
			(0.181)			(0.183)
Log(Population)			0.857			0.859
			(0.571)			(0.570)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			-0.002			-0.002
			(0.003)			(0.003)
UNGA ideal point			-0.156*			-0.152*
			(0.066)			(0.066)
Debt (pct. GNI)			0.0003			0.0003
			(0.0008)			(0.0008)
Democracy			0.114			0.104
			(0.268)			(0.274)
Fixed-effects						
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics						
Observations	661	643	570	661	643	570

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Table D9: Effect of EB Membership on GRID Program Conditions, Full Covariate Results. Models 1-3 are country-years (zeroes included); Models 4-6 are program-years. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variable:	Count of GRID conditions					
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
	OLS	OLS	OLS	Poisson	Poisson	Poisson
Variables						
Any Exec. Director	0.666***	0.697***	0.794***	1.63*	1.63*	1.01
	(0.176)	(0.182)	(0.198)	(0.824)	(0.818)	(0.771)
Prior EB member	-0.018	0.017	0.130	0.659	0.709	0.699
	(0.221)	(0.212)	(0.235)	(0.864)	(0.840)	(0.656)
Years untreated	0.064*	0.078*	0.083*	0.268**	0.269**	0.149
	(0.027)	(0.029)	(0.035)	(0.085)	(0.086)	(0.084)
Years untreated, squared	-0.001*	-0.002*	-0.002*	-0.007**	-0.007**	-0.004
	(0.0006)	(0.0007)	(0.0008)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	0.028	0.013	-0.006	-0.175	-0.181	-0.159
	(0.036)	(0.035)	(0.039)	(0.116)	(0.114)	(0.095)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	-0.001	-0.0007	-0.0001	0.004	0.004	0.004
	(0.0010)	(0.0009)	(0.001)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.003)
GDP growth		0.0009	0.009		0.007	8.73×10^{-5}
		(0.003)	(0.007)		(0.012)	(0.009)
State capacity		0.235**	0.267**		-0.053	-0.136
		(0.070)	(0.087)		(0.169)	(0.199)
Prior IMF program			0.229			1.70*
			(0.179)			(0.855)
Log(US aid)			-0.095			-0.040
			(0.061)			(0.120)
Log(UK aid)			0.008			-0.112
			(0.061)			(0.106)
Log(French aid)			0.113*			-0.035
			(0.042)			(0.097)
UNSC			0.145			0.622**
			(0.212)			(0.230)
Foreign exchange reserves			-0.672			-1.76
			(0.869)			(2.08)
Log(GDP)			-0.662**			-0.516
			(0.198)			(0.817)
Log(Population)			0.885			3.73
			(0.578)			(2.13)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			-0.022			0.012
			(0.013)			(0.017)
UNGA ideal point			-0.371			-0.117
			(0.229)			(0.270)
Debt (pct. GNI)			5.05×10^{-5}			0.002
			(0.001)			(0.002)
Democracy			0.523			2.27
			(0.675)			(1.47)
Year				0.113***	0.112***	0.014
				(0.016)	(0.016)	(0.071)
Fixed-effects						
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes			
Unit	Country-year	Country-year	Country-year	Program-year	Program-year	Program-year
Fit statistics						
Observations	1,679	1,631	1,378	649	631	558

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Table D10: Effect of EB Membership on Labor Conditions, Full Covariate Results. Models 1-3 are country-years (zeroes included); Models 4-6 are program-years. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variable:	Count of labor conditions					
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
	OLS	OLS	OLS	Poisson	Poisson	Poisson
Variables						
Any Exec. Director	0.398*	0.411*	0.532*	2.94***	2.95***	2.25***
	(0.191)	(0.191)	(0.241)	(0.608)	(0.590)	(0.493)
Prior EB member	0.069	0.093	0.302	1.23	1.29	1.14
	(0.243)	(0.253)	(0.323)	(1.15)	(1.15)	(1.09)
Years untreated	0.086**	0.090*	0.109*	0.500***	0.494***	0.372***
	(0.031)	(0.034)	(0.044)	(0.070)	(0.073)	(0.090)
Years untreated, squared	-0.002*	-0.002*	-0.002	-0.011***	-0.011***	-0.008**
	(0.0009)	(0.0009)	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	-0.026	-0.028	-0.062	0.103	0.107	0.045
	(0.046)	(0.050)	(0.051)	(0.139)	(0.140)	(0.108)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	0.0002	0.0002	0.001	-0.012	-0.013*	-0.010
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.006)	(0.006)	(0.005)
GDP growth		0.005	0.027*		0.024**	0.027**
		(0.008)	(0.012)		(0.009)	(0.009)
State capacity		0.136	0.014		0.022	0.034
		(0.127)	(0.138)		(0.199)	(0.174)
Prior IMF program			0.294			1.07
			(0.233)			(0.564)
Log(US aid)			0.036			-0.057
			(0.067)			(0.080)
Log(UK aid)			-0.024			-0.049
			(0.080)			(0.082)
Log(French aid)			0.187***			0.163
			(0.046)			(0.103)
UNSC			-0.178			-0.001
			(0.238)			(0.363)
Foreign exchange reserves			-0.043			-3.44
			(1.20)			(2.17)
Log(GDP)			-0.449			-2.57**
			(0.346)			(0.932)
Log(Population)			-0.541			4.68
			(0.710)			(2.51)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			-0.006			0.021*
			(0.012)			(0.009)
UNGA ideal point			-0.091			-0.295
			(0.257)			(0.287)
Debt (pct. GNI)			-0.0009			-4.81×10^{-5}
			(0.001)			(0.002)
Democracy			1.22			3.08***
			(0.928)			(0.862)
Year				-0.026	-0.027	-0.110
				(0.025)	(0.027)	(0.073)
Fixed-effects						
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes			
Unit	Country-year	Country-year	Country-year	Program-year	Program-year	Program-year
Fit statistics						
Observations	1,679	1,631	1,378	621	603	531

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Table D11: Effect of EB Membership on Count of Conditions by Type of Condition.

Dependent Variables:	Count of labor conditions			Count of GRID conditions			Count of WC conditions		
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
Variables									
Any Exec. Director	0.398*	0.411*	0.532*	0.666***	0.697***	0.794***	1.99	2.01	1.67
	(0.191)	(0.191)	(0.241)	(0.176)	(0.182)	(0.198)	(1.10)	(1.12)	(1.07)
Prior EB member	0.069	0.093	0.302	-0.018	0.017	0.130	2.85	2.57	0.262
	(0.243)	(0.253)	(0.323)	(0.221)	(0.212)	(0.235)	(1.45)	(1.49)	(1.14)
Years untreated	0.086**	0.090*	0.109*	0.064*	0.078*	0.083*	0.504**	0.501**	0.308
	(0.031)	(0.034)	(0.044)	(0.027)	(0.029)	(0.035)	(0.145)	(0.158)	(0.178)
Years untreated, squared	-0.002*	-0.002*	-0.002	-0.001*	-0.002*	-0.002*	-0.009*	-0.009*	-0.006
	(0.0009)	(0.0009)	(0.001)	(0.0006)	(0.0007)	(0.0008)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.004)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	-0.026	-0.028	-0.062	0.028	0.013	-0.006	-0.012	-0.012	0.081
	(0.046)	(0.050)	(0.051)	(0.036)	(0.035)	(0.039)	(0.211)	(0.223)	(0.180)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	0.0002	0.0002	0.001	-0.001	-0.0007	-0.0001	-0.004	-0.004	-0.002
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.0010)	(0.0009)	(0.001)	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.007)
GDP growth		0.005	0.027*		0.0009	0.009		0.009	0.069*
		(0.008)	(0.012)		(0.003)	(0.007)		(0.025)	(0.034)
State capacity		0.136	0.014		0.235**	0.267**		1.21*	1.14*
		(0.127)	(0.138)		(0.070)	(0.087)		(0.472)	(0.546)
Prior IMF program			0.294			0.229			6.11***
			(0.233)			(0.179)			(1.06)
Log(US aid)			0.036			-0.095			-0.544
			(0.067)			(0.061)			(0.305)
Log(UK aid)			-0.024			0.008			0.132
			(0.080)			(0.061)			(0.355)
Log(French aid)			0.187***			0.113*			1.12***
			(0.046)			(0.042)			(0.181)
UNSC			-0.178			0.145			0.218
			(0.238)			(0.212)			(1.11)
Foreign exchange reserves			-0.043			-0.672			-2.01
			(1.20)			(0.869)			(4.49)
Log(GDP)			-0.449			-0.662**			-2.91*
			(0.346)			(0.198)			(1.33)
Log(Population)			-0.541			0.885			-1.14
			(0.710)			(0.578)			(3.39)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			-0.006			-0.022			-0.007
			(0.012)			(0.013)			(0.030)
UNGA ideal point			-0.091			-0.371			-0.777
			(0.257)			(0.229)			(1.16)
Debt (pct. GNI)			-0.0009			5.05×10^{-5}			-0.003
			(0.001)			(0.001)			(0.007)
Democracy			1.22			0.523			1.44
			(0.928)			(0.675)			(3.27)
Fixed-effects									
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics									
Observations	1,679	1,631	1,378	1,679	1,631	1,378	1,679	1,631	1,378

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Table D12: Effect of EB Membership on Washington Consensus Program Conditions, Full Covariate Results. Models 1-3 are country-years (zeroes included); Models 4-6 are program-years. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variable:	Count of WC conditions					
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
	OLS	OLS	OLS	Poisson	Poisson	Poisson
Variables						
Any Exec. Director	1.99	2.01	1.67	0.071	0.111	0.212
	(1.10)	(1.12)	(1.07)	(0.154)	(0.165)	(0.139)
Prior EB member	2.85	2.57	0.262	0.862***	0.859***	0.494**
	(1.45)	(1.49)	(1.14)	(0.194)	(0.187)	(0.182)
Years untreated	0.504**	0.501**	0.308	0.115***	0.112***	0.058**
	(0.145)	(0.158)	(0.178)	(0.018)	(0.019)	(0.019)
Years untreated, squared	-0.009*	-0.009*	-0.006	-0.003***	-0.003***	-0.0010
	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.004)	(0.0006)	(0.0006)	(0.0005)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	-0.012	-0.012	0.081	-0.098***	-0.093***	-0.041*
	(0.211)	(0.223)	(0.180)	(0.026)	(0.027)	(0.020)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	-0.004	-0.004	-0.002	0.002**	0.002*	0.001
	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.007)	(0.0009)	(0.0009)	(0.0007)
GDP growth		0.009	0.069*		0.007*	0.005
		(0.025)	(0.034)		(0.003)	(0.003)
State capacity		1.21*	1.14*		-0.043	0.0004
		(0.472)	(0.546)		(0.055)	(0.054)
Prior IMF program			6.11***			0.220
			(1.06)			(0.149)
Log(US aid)			-0.544			-0.068**
			(0.305)			(0.022)
Log(UK aid)			0.132			0.036
			(0.355)			(0.043)
Log(French aid)			1.12***			0.044
			(0.181)			(0.025)
UNSC			0.218			0.190
			(1.11)			(0.113)
Foreign exchange reserves			-2.01			1.38**
			(4.49)			(0.428)
Log(GDP)			-2.91*			-0.256
			(1.33)			(0.240)
Log(Population)			-1.14			1.05
			(3.39)			(0.728)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			-0.007			-0.003
			(0.030)			(0.004)
UNGA ideal point			-0.777			-0.280**
			(1.16)			(0.091)
Debt (pct. GNI)			-0.003			0.0007
			(0.007)			(0.001)
Democracy			1.44			0.204
			(3.27)			(0.299)
Year				-0.016	-0.018	-0.048*
				(0.008)	(0.009)	(0.024)
Fixed-effects						
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes			
Unit	Country-year	Country-year	Country-year	Program-year	Program-year	Program-year
Fit statistics						
Observations	1,679	1,631	1,378	661	643	570

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

E Additional Analyses

Table E13: Effect of EB Membership on IMF Program Conditions with Heterogeneity by Regime Type. Observations are country-years. Standard errors are clustered by country.

Dependent Variables:	Count of total conditions	Count of GRID conditions	Count of labor conditions	Count of WC conditions
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Variables				
Any Exec. Director × Democracy	-8.01	0.262	-0.176	-3.41
	(11.2)	(0.784)	(0.927)	(4.27)
Any Exec. Director	10.8*	0.602	0.475	3.18
	(5.04)	(0.346)	(0.421)	(2.07)
Democracy	23.5**	1.18*	1.43	7.98**
	(7.79)	(0.496)	(0.734)	(2.70)
Prior EB member	3.99	0.039	0.109	2.92*
	(3.21)	(0.196)	(0.252)	(1.34)
Years untreated	1.32***	0.068*	0.088**	0.509***
	(0.358)	(0.026)	(0.032)	(0.140)
Years untreated, squared	-0.025*	-0.001*	-0.002*	-0.009*
	(0.010)	(0.0006)	(0.0009)	(0.004)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	0.445	0.026	-0.027	-0.018
	(0.591)	(0.035)	(0.046)	(0.209)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	-0.018	-0.0010	0.0003	-0.003
	(0.019)	(0.0010)	(0.001)	(0.007)
Fixed-effects				
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics				
Observations	1,679	1,679	1,679	1,679

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

Table E14: Effect of EB Membership on IMF Conditions by Union Engagement.

Dependent Variables:	Count of labor conditions	Count of GRID conditions	Count of WC conditions	Count of total conditions
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Variables				
Any Exec. Director × Union participation	0.265	-0.035	-0.286	-0.072
	(0.147)	(0.184)	(0.849)	(2.30)
Any Exec. Director	0.319*	0.699**	2.19	8.18*
	(0.157)	(0.212)	(1.24)	(3.22)
Union participation	-0.020	0.119	0.605	1.46
	(0.122)	(0.074)	(0.511)	(1.19)
Prior EB member	0.151	0.019	3.00*	4.22
	(0.248)	(0.215)	(1.39)	(3.35)
Years untreated	0.092**	0.068*	0.523***	1.36***
	(0.030)	(0.027)	(0.138)	(0.352)
Years untreated, squared	-0.002*	-0.001*	-0.009*	-0.025*
	(0.0008)	(0.0007)	(0.004)	(0.009)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	-0.029	0.026	-0.020	0.436
	(0.045)	(0.035)	(0.208)	(0.583)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	0.0002	-0.001	-0.004	-0.020
	(0.001)	(0.0010)	(0.007)	(0.018)
Fixed-effects				
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics				
Observations	1,679	1,679	1,679	1,679

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

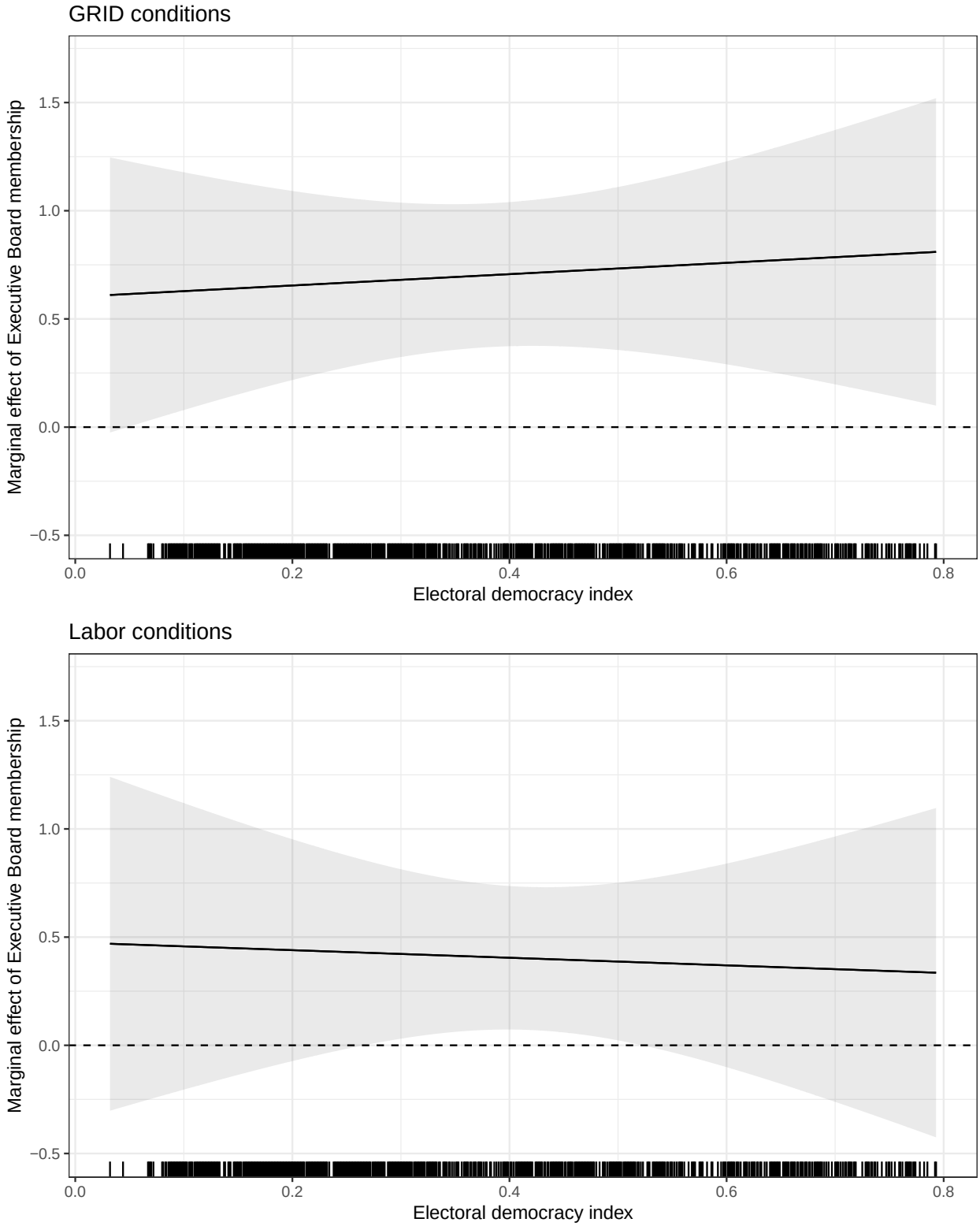


Figure E6: Marginal Effect of Executive Board Membership at Different Levels of Democracy. Black tick marks indicate the distribution of the democracy moderator.

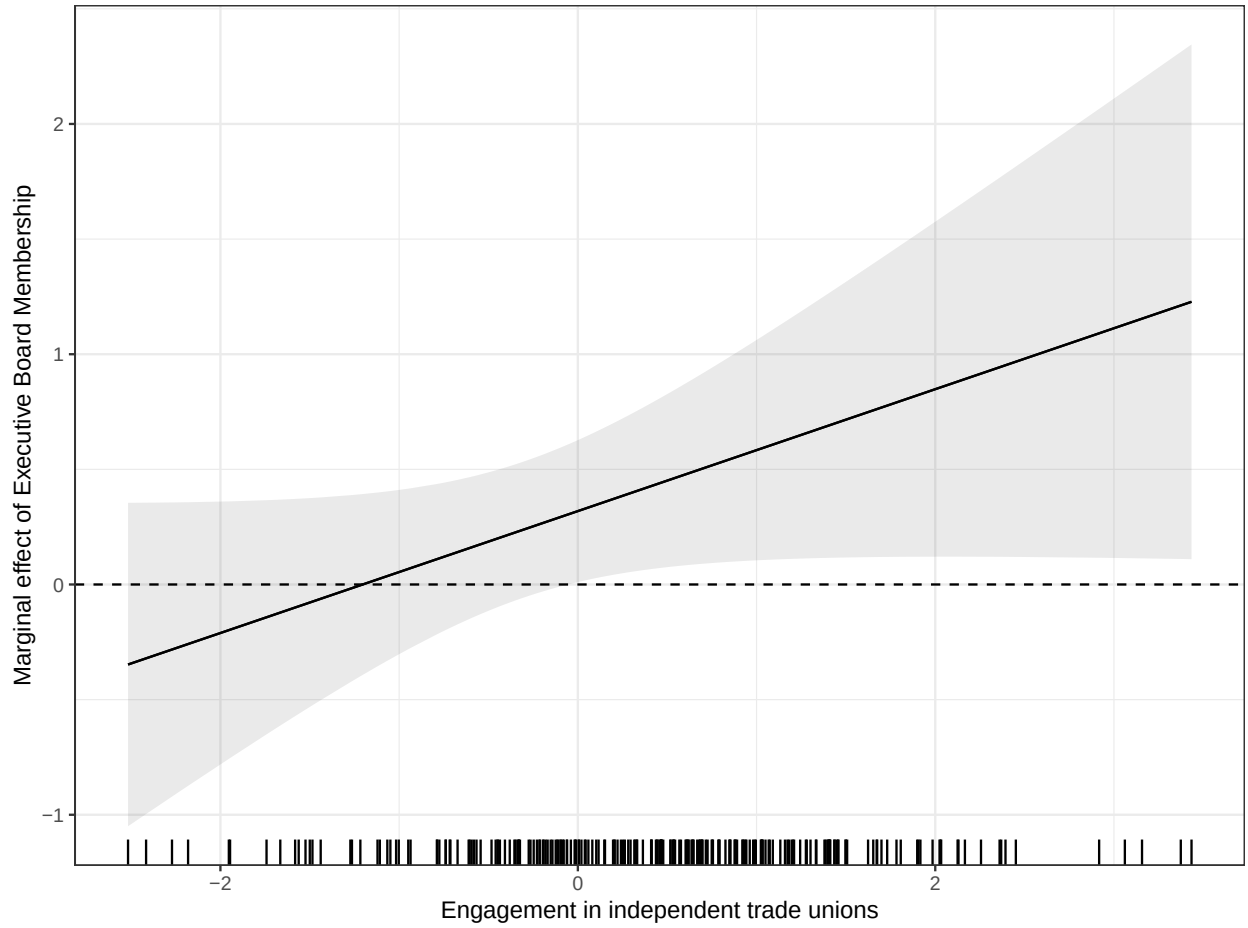


Figure E7: Marginal Effect of Executive Board Membership at Different Levels of Union Participation. Black tick marks indicate the distribution of the union participation moderator.

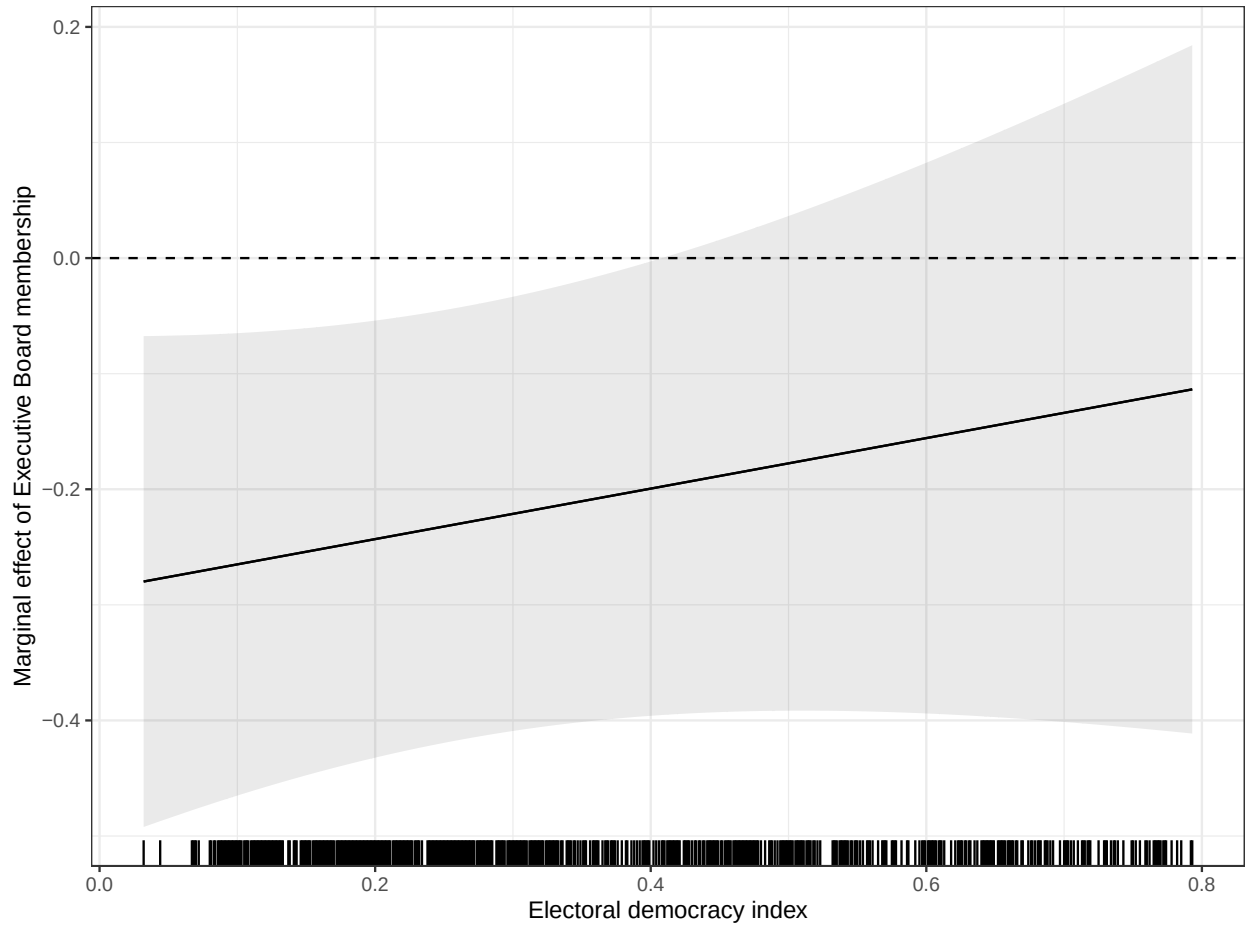


Figure E8: Marginal Effect of Executive Board Membership on Union Engagement in $t + 5$ at Different Levels of Democracy. Black tick marks indicate the distribution of the democracy moderator.

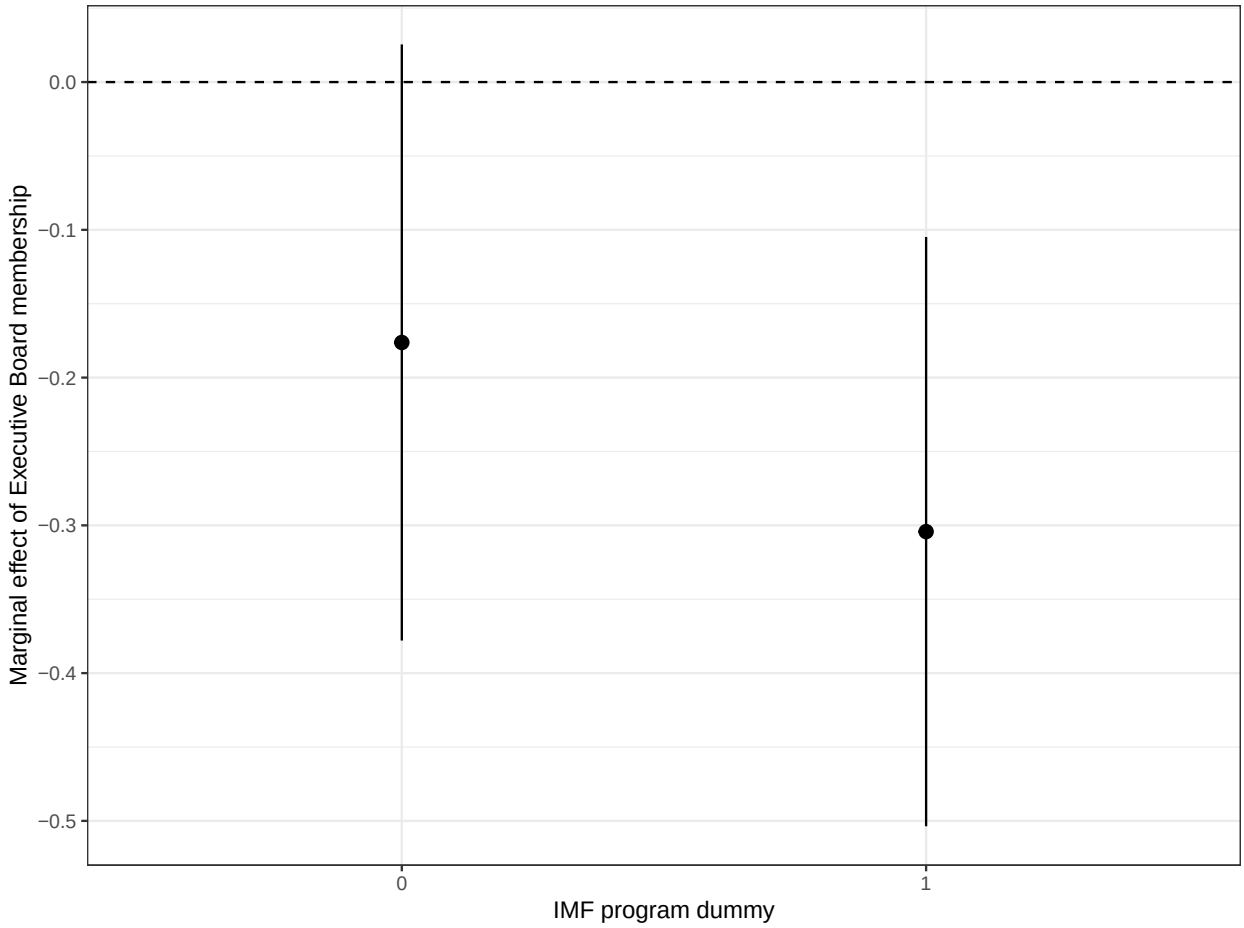


Figure E9: Marginal Effect of Executive Board Membership on Union Engagement in $t + 5$ at Different Levels of IMF Program Participation Dummy.

Table E15: Effect of EB Membership on Union Engagement in Five Years.

Dependent Variable:	Union participation in five years								
Model:	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
Variables									
Any Exec. Director	-0.221*	-0.244*	-0.217*	-0.287*	-0.332**	-0.255**	-0.176	-0.194	-0.196*
	(0.097)	(0.099)	(0.083)	(0.112)	(0.110)	(0.088)	(0.103)	(0.105)	(0.092)
Prior EB member	-0.100	-0.114	-0.156	-0.091	-0.100	-0.150	-0.095	-0.110	-0.153
	(0.100)	(0.102)	(0.107)	(0.105)	(0.107)	(0.108)	(0.102)	(0.104)	(0.107)
Years untreated	-0.011	-0.015	-0.009	-0.011	-0.014	-0.008	-0.013	-0.017	-0.010
	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.011)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.010)	(0.009)
Years untreated, squared	0.0001	0.0002	1.69×10^{-5}	0.0001	0.0002	1.86×10^{-5}	0.0002	0.0002	5.18×10^{-5}
	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)	(0.0002)
Union participation	0.537***	0.536***	0.517***	0.543***	0.542***	0.516***	0.535***	0.534***	0.518***
	(0.074)	(0.074)	(0.087)	(0.076)	(0.075)	(0.088)	(0.074)	(0.074)	(0.087)
Prior EB member × Years untreated	-0.018	-0.015	-0.022	-0.018	-0.015	-0.022	-0.018	-0.015	-0.022
	(0.011)	(0.011)	(0.011)	(0.011)	(0.011)	(0.011)	(0.011)	(0.011)	(0.011)
Prior EB member × Years untreated, squared	0.0005	0.0005	0.0007*	0.0005	0.0005	0.0007*	0.0005	0.0005	0.0007*
	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)	(0.0003)
GDP growth		0.001	-0.002		0.001	-0.003		0.001	-0.003
		(0.002)	(0.002)		(0.002)	(0.002)		(0.002)	(0.002)
State capacity		0.021	0.022		0.029	0.022		0.019	0.020
		(0.026)	(0.029)		(0.027)	(0.029)		(0.026)	(0.029)
Prior IMF program			-0.027			-0.026			-0.044
			(0.138)			(0.139)			(0.137)
Log(US aid)			-0.020			-0.020			-0.019
			(0.016)			(0.016)			(0.015)
Log(UK aid)			0.017			0.018			0.017
			(0.022)			(0.022)			(0.022)
Log(French aid)			0.003			0.003			0.002
			(0.012)			(0.012)			(0.012)
UNSC			0.080			0.079			0.079
			(0.052)			(0.052)			(0.053)
Foreign exchange reserves			0.281			0.273			0.257
			(0.300)			(0.303)			(0.296)
Log(GDP)			0.001			0.006			0.013
			(0.146)			(0.147)			(0.144)
Log(Population)			0.458			0.459			0.437
			(0.235)			(0.233)			(0.227)
Oil rents (pct. GDP)			0.005			0.005			0.005
			(0.003)			(0.003)			(0.003)
UNGA ideal point			-0.093			-0.092			-0.095
			(0.067)			(0.067)			(0.067)
Debt (pct. GNI)			0.0002			0.0002			0.0002
			(0.0003)			(0.0003)			(0.0003)
Democracy			0.052	-0.138	-0.183	0.037			0.022
			(0.240)	(0.191)	(0.208)	(0.240)			(0.240)
Any Exec. Director × Democracy				0.218	0.292	0.115			
				(0.223)	(0.212)	(0.198)			
Under IMF program							0.041	0.033	0.041
							(0.038)	(0.040)	(0.037)
Any Exec. Director × Under IMF program							-0.128	-0.143	-0.068
							(0.075)	(0.077)	(0.066)
Fixed-effects									
Country	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Year	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Fit statistics									
Observations	1,541	1,499	1,259	1,541	1,499	1,259	1,541	1,499	1,259

Clustered (Country) standard-errors in parentheses
*Signif. Codes: ***: 0.001, **: 0.01, *: 0.05*

F Leave-One-Out Exercises

Table F16: Leave-One-Country-Out Robustness of Country-Year OLS Estimates. For each model, the effect of Executive Board membership is re-estimated excluding one country at a time. Min/Max report the smallest/largest Executive Board coefficient across all exclusions, with the excluded country in brackets. Pct. Sig. is the share of exclusions for which treat_any remains significant at $p < 0.05$.

Model	Original	Min [country]	Max [country]	Pct. Sig.
Total, Rotation	7.878	6.367 [RWA]	8.914 [BWA]	100%
Total, Limited	7.998	6.537 [RWA]	9.102 [BWA]	100%
Total, Full	8.398	6.510 [CIV]	9.718 [BWA]	100%
Labor, Rotation	0.398	0.290 [LSO]	0.459 [BWA]	74%
Labor, Limited	0.411	0.301 [GAB]	0.474 [BWA]	89%
Labor, Full	0.532	0.373 [LSO]	0.598 [BWA]	91%
GRID, Rotation	0.666	0.536 [RWA]	0.710 [BWA]	100%
GRID, Limited	0.697	0.571 [RWA]	0.758 [NER]	100%
GRID, Full	0.794	0.657 [RWA]	0.863 [NER]	100%
WC, Rotation	1.990	1.393 [COD]	2.349 [CPV]	6%
WC, Limited	2.009	1.380 [COD]	2.383 [CPV]	4%
WC, Full	1.675	1.172 [RWA]	2.122 [BWA]	0%

Table F17: Leave-One-Country-Out Robustness of Program-Year Poisson Estimates. For each model, the average marginal effect of Executive Board membership (count scale) is re-estimated excluding one country at a time. Min/Max report the smallest/largest marginal effect across all exclusions, with the excluded country in brackets. Pct. Sig. is the share of exclusions for which the Executive Board coefficient remains significant at $p < 0.05$.

Model	Original	Min [country]	Max [country]	Pct. Sig.
Total, Rotation	5.96	2.41 [CIV]	8.64 [TZA]	0%
Total, Limited	6.76	3.21 [CIV]	9.37 [TZA]	2%
Total, Full	9.08	6.58 [CIV]	12.32 [KEN]	87%
Labor, Rotation	25.31	16.89 [LSO]	39.03 [KEN]	100%
Labor, Limited	24.75	16.83 [LSO]	36.45 [KEN]	100%
Labor, Full	12.47	9.60 [LSO]	19.23 [KEN]	100%
GRID, Rotation	3.72	2.60 [KEN]	10.64 [GAB]	70%
GRID, Limited	3.73	2.67 [KEN]	10.44 [GAB]	74%
GRID, Full	1.65	1.15 [LSO]	5.67 [GAB]	2%
WC, Rotation	0.90	-0.21 [CIV]	1.78 [TZA]	0%
WC, Limited	1.43	0.29 [CIV]	2.56 [LSO]	0%
WC, Full	2.90	1.86 [GAB]	4.19 [KEN]	0%